



EDITED BY

THOMAS G.
WEISS

SAM
DAWS

≡ The Oxford Handbook *on*
**THE UNITED
NATIONS**

SECOND
EDITION

THE OXFORD HANDBOOK ON

THE UNITED
NATIONS

THE OXFORD HANDBOOK ON

THE UNITED
NATIONS

SECOND EDITION

Edited by

THOMAS G. WEISS

and

SAM DAWS

OXFORD
UNIVERSITY PRESS

OXFORD
UNIVERSITY PRESS

Great Clarendon Street, Oxford, OX2 6DP,
United Kingdom

Oxford University Press is a department of the University of Oxford.
It furthers the University's objective of excellence in research, scholarship,
and education by publishing worldwide. Oxford is a registered trade mark of
Oxford University Press in the UK and in certain other countries

© Oxford University Press 2018

The moral rights of the authors have been asserted

First Edition published in 2007

Second Edition published in 2018

Impression: 1

All rights reserved. No part of this publication may be reproduced, stored in
a retrieval system, or transmitted, in any form or by any means, without the
prior permission in writing of Oxford University Press, or as expressly permitted
by law, by licence or under terms agreed with the appropriate reprographics
rights organization. Enquiries concerning reproduction outside the scope of the
above should be sent to the Rights Department, Oxford University Press, at the
address above

You must not circulate this work in any other form
and you must impose this same condition on any acquirer

Published in the United States of America by Oxford University Press
198 Madison Avenue, New York, NY 10016, United States of America

British Library Cataloguing in Publication Data
Data available

Library of Congress Control Number: 2018935443

ISBN 978-0-19-880316-4

Printed and bound by
CPI Group (UK) Ltd, Croydon, CR0 4YY

Links to third party websites are provided by Oxford in good faith and
for information only. Oxford disclaims any responsibility for the materials
contained in any third party website referenced in this work.

*Dedicated to Margaret Joan Anstee and Brian Urquhart
—mentors, friends, colleagues, and UN pioneers*

UNITED NATIONS



NATIONS UNIES

FOREWORD

BY THE UN SECRETARY-GENERAL

THE United Nations is the cornerstone of the international system and the institutional expression of multilateralism. In an era of global mega-trends and transnational threats, it is the essential instrument of Member States in seizing common opportunities, upholding universal values, and advancing peace and dignity for all.

Recent decades have seen notable progress: the global economy has grown, standards of living have improved, and the proportion of people living in absolute poverty has fallen dramatically. At the same time, globalization and technological advances, while generating remarkable gains, have also contributed to widening inequalities. Conflicts have become more complex, discrimination against women remains entrenched, and the impacts of climate change are cascading into a deepening menace.

The United Nations has contributed to decades of relative peace and progress even as we know that too many people have yet to enjoy the fruits of progress, and that too many countries remain engulfed by violence and repression. As the world faces a new generation of challenges and frontier issues, the United Nations will continue to adapt while remaining guided by the principles and values proclaimed in the Charter, including equal rights, tolerance, and the peaceful resolution of disputes. We are also committed to making prevention a priority by addressing root causes, cutting across all three pillars of our work: peace and security, sustainable development, and human rights.

This *Handbook* illuminates the full scope of the Organization's work through the contributions of leading analysts and scholars from every region of the world. While they offer differing perspectives, all agree on the indispensability of the United Nations as a unique instrument of service to all humankind. I commend this volume to a wide global audience as we strive together to deliver a better world for 'we the peoples.'

António Guterres
New York
MARCH 2018

ACKNOWLEDGEMENTS

IN the more than seven decades since its establishment in 1945, the United Nations Organization and the system of universal agencies that form part of the UN system have been central to international relations. The first edition of *The Oxford Handbook on the United Nations* filled a long-standing gap in the small library of distinguished guides to the humanities, sciences, and social sciences published by Oxford University Press (OUP). For libraries and research depositories worldwide, this second edition once again provides one-stop shopping—to bring alive the historical, legal, political, and administrative details of the UN's many roles, published as it approaches its seventy-fifth anniversary in 2020.

Our task was to contextualize the world organization's role in helping to realize international achievements that, by the standards of previous centuries, have been unprecedented. Inevitably, the early hopes have wavered, especially when dashed by the bitter realities of international politics and conflicting economic interests. Even so, the vision and early ambitions have never been entirely lost—and the UN has continued to re-fashion its goals and objectives through the ups-and-downs of subsequent decades. We hope that we have captured the hopes and the despair, the triumphs and the tragedies, and especially what challenges remain as the world organization's ninth Secretary-General, António Guterres, has begun his mandate.

One of the more agreeable tasks in writing a book is thanking the people who helped along the way. We begin with our editor at OUP, Dominic Byatt, who was not bashful about asking the two of us the daunting assignment of assembling some half a million words covering almost seven decades of history of the present generation of universal institutions between two covers. His confidence was reassuring, his astute advice invaluable, and his warm support unwavering. We are grateful he twisted our arms. We would also like to express our gratitude to the OUP team who worked so efficiently with Dominic on this volume: Lizzie Suffling, Claire Croft, and Olivia Wells for their administrative and organizational support, and Martin Noble for his willingness to take on such a substantial copyediting task and complete it with such care and thoroughness.

The next round of appreciation goes to the fifty-one invited contributors whose analyses and prose grace these pages. When we initially agreed to edit the first edition of this *Handbook* in June 2004, the task seemed daunting. Taking into account the commercial limits of what was a feasible project, we outlined what we thought every reader should know about the world organization but might be afraid to ask. Using our respective multinational and multi-generational address books, along with those of colleagues, and searching our own bookshelves and those of libraries, we contacted what readers

will agree is a world-class team. They have all either written extensively on the topic of their essays or been active practitioners in a related field—indeed, the vast majority have done both. Clearly, this *Handbook* reflects that collective wisdom. The second edition's commissioning in spring 2016 was hardly less challenging; but we are delighted that we managed to cajole previous contributors to join us once again, and then persuaded some new ones to address new and newly significant issues.

It is no exaggeration to state that we could not have successfully completed a project of this magnitude and complexity without superb staff support. In the process of compiling the chapters, it suddenly dawned on us that we were actually trying to put together the equivalent of at least four edited books simultaneously. The lion's share of the staff work for both editions was accomplished at the Ralph Bunche Institute for International Studies of The Graduate Center of The City University of New York. Several graduate students in particular should be singled out. We begin with Paul Celentano, who made room in his PhD studies not only to continue his career as a classical musician but also to help orchestrate and edit this second edition; we are truly grateful. He had a hard act to follow by his predecessors at the Graduate Center for the first edition: Ausama Abdelhadi, Ian Jones, Zeynep Turan, and Danielle Zach. Also for the first edition, Veronica Lie and Natalie Samarasinghe at the United Nations Association of the United Kingdom brought their meticulous eyes to the project. Quite simply, that first edition and this current second edition would not have taken the shape that it did without all of this collective help.

The chapters here are independent examinations of the pluses and the minuses of many aspects of the world organization. With few exceptions, the chapters have all changed substantially from the first edition; there are also several new chapters and new contributors.

Readers should keep in mind what has not changed from the first edition: this is a handbook *on* and not *of* the United Nations. We speak for all the contributors in specifying that we as a group are critical multilateralists. These are the voices of professionals, who see the need for international cooperation to solve many challenges to human survival with dignity; but no one is a card-carrying member of the UN fan club. The editors and the authors do not speak for the United Nations. The pages of this book represent our informed thinking, no more and (we hope) no less.

To all who participated and contributed with such dedication and skill, 'thanks' is really a pale reflection of our gratitude.

T.G.W and S.D.
New York and Oxford

MARCH 2018

CONTENTS

<i>List of Tables</i>	xvii
<i>List of Figures</i>	xix
<i>List of Boxes</i>	xxi
<i>Abbreviations</i>	xxiii
<i>About the Contributors</i>	xxix

PART I INTRODUCTION AND ORIGINS

1. The United Nations: Continuity and Change	3
THOMAS G. WEISS AND SAM DAWS	
2. Origins of the United Nations	41
JUSTIN MORRIS	

PART II THEORETICAL FRAMEWORKS

3. Political Approaches	61
MICHAEL BARNETT AND MARTHA FINNEMORE	
4. Legal Perspectives	79
JOSÉ E. ALVAREZ	
5. Evolution in Knowledge and Norms	104
LEON GORDENKER AND CHRISTER JÖNSSON	

PART III PRINCIPAL ORGANS

6. General Assembly	119
M. J. PETERSON	
7. Security Council	140
SEBASTIAN VON EINSIEDEL AND DAVID M. MALONE	

8. Economic and Social Council	165
GERT ROSENTHAL	
9. Trusteeship Council	178
RALPH WILDE	
10. International Court of Justice	190
CHARLOTTE KU	
11. The Secretariat: Independence and Reform	212
JAMES O. C. JONAH AND AMY SCOTT HILL	
12. Secretary-General	231
EDWARD NEWMAN	
13. Financing	250
JEFFREY LAURENTI	

PART IV RELATIONSHIPS WITH OTHER ACTORS

14. Bretton Woods Institutions	283
NGAIRE WOODS	
15. World Trade Organization	299
RORDEN WILKINSON	
16. Regional Organizations	313
WAHEGURU PAL SINGH SIDHU	
17. Formal and Informal Groups	332
MONICA HERZ	
18. Non-governmental Organizations	346
MIKE SCHROEDER AND PAUL WAPNER	
19. Private Sector	358
CRAIG N. MURPHY	
20. Media	370
BARBARA CROSSETTE	

PART V INTERNATIONAL PEACE AND SECURITY

- | | |
|---|-----|
| 21. Arms Control and Disarmament | 383 |
| KEITH KRAUSE | |
| 22. Peaceful Settlement of Disputes and Conflict Prevention | 396 |
| RAMA MANI AND RICHARD PONZIO | |
| 23. Peace Operations | 420 |
| RICHARD GOWAN | |
| 24. Sanctions | 446 |
| GEORGE A. LOPEZ | |
| 25. Humanitarian Intervention and the Responsibility to Protect | 461 |
| RAMESH THAKUR | |
| 26. Peacebuilding | 479 |
| ROLAND PARIS | |
| 27. Terrorism | 505 |
| JANE BOULDEN | |
| 28. Crime and Criminal Justice | 515 |
| PETER ROMANIUK | |
| 29. Cyber Threats | 528 |
| LUCAS KELLO | |

PART VI HUMAN RIGHTS

- | | |
|---|-----|
| 30. Human Rights: Norms and Machinery | 543 |
| NATALIE SAMARASINGHE | |
| 31. International Criminal Court and Ad Hoc Tribunals | 567 |
| RICHARD J. GOLDSTONE | |
| 32. Humanitarian Action and Coordination | 583 |
| JEFF CRISP | |
| 33. Women's Rights and Gender Integration | 601 |
| CHARLOTTE BUNCH | |

- | | |
|---------------------------------------|-----|
| 34. Minorities and Indigenous Peoples | 619 |
| MAIVÂN CLECH LÂM | |
| 35. Human Security | 635 |
| CHRISTOPHER K. PENNY | |

PART VII DEVELOPMENT

- | | |
|--------------------------------------|-----|
| 36. UN Development System | 655 |
| JACQUES FOMERAND AND DENNIS DIJKZEUL | |
| 37. Health and Infectious Disease | 679 |
| GIAN LUCA BURCI | |
| 38. Global Resource Management | 695 |
| NICO J. SCHRIJVER | |
| 39. Climate Change | 716 |
| MARIA IVANOVA | |
| 40. Democracy and Good Governance | 734 |
| W. ANDY KNIGHT | |
| 41. Human Development | 750 |
| RICHARD JOLLY | |
| 42. Sustainable Development Goals | 764 |
| SAKIKO FUKUDA-PARR | |

PART VIII LOOKING TO THE FUTURE

- | | |
|--|-----|
| 43. Multilateralism and the Changing World Order | 781 |
| AMITAV ACHARYA | |
| 44. Prospects for UN Renovation and Reform | 797 |
| EDWARD C. LUCK | |
| 45. The UN's Role in a Changing Global Landscape | 823 |
| MICHÈLE GRIFFIN | |

Appendices

1. Suggested Further Reading	843
2. The UN System at a Glance	865
3. The Charter of the United Nations	867
4. Statute of the International Court of Justice	893
5. Universal Declaration of Human Rights	909

<i>Name Index</i>	915
-------------------	-----

<i>Subject Index</i>	921
----------------------	-----

LIST OF TABLES

6.1	Shifts in regional balance within the General Assembly, 1945–2015	128
8.1	Main subsidiary bodies of ECOSOC	167
13.1	Rates of assessment for selected countries	255
13.2	Step-by-step adjustments in UN assessment for selected countries	261
13.3	UN peacekeeping and regular assessments for selected countries	263
15.1	Trade negotiation ‘rounds’ under the GATT and WTO	300
15.2	WTO ministerial conferences	300
16.1	Regional involvement in UN peace operations	321
17.1	Examples of UN informal groups	337
30.1	The core international human rights instruments	546
30.2	Special Rapporteurs, Independent Experts, and Working Groups (‘Special Procedures’) by country and by theme, March 2018	557
42.1	Sustainable Development Goals	766

LIST OF FIGURES

7.1	Number of vetoes in the UN Security Council, 1985–2017	157
30.1	Key UN human rights bodies and mechanisms	554
30.2	The UN Human Rights Council and its subsidiary bodies and mechanisms	555

LIST OF BOXES

17.1	General Assembly Working Groups	335
17.2	Security Council Working Groups	336
17.3	Major groups of friends and related mechanisms	341
26.1	The OECD's 'Fragile States Principles'	496

ABBREVIATIONS

ACABQ	Advisory Committee on Administrative and Budgetary Questions
ACC	Administrative Committee on Coordination
ACP	African, Caribbean, and Pacific States
AMIS	African Union Mission in Sudan
AMISOM	African Union Mission in Somalia
ASEAN	Association of Southeast Asian Nations
AU	African Union
BCSD	Business Council for Sustainable Development
BRIC	Brazil, Russia, India, and China (Group of)
BRICS	Brazil, Russia, India, China, and South Africa (Group of)
CAR	Central African Republic
CARICOM	Caribbean Community
CEB	Chief Executives Board
CEDAW	Convention on the Elimination of all forms of Discrimination against Women
CERD	Committee on the Elimination of Racial Discrimination
CHR	Commission on Human Rights
CIA	Central Intelligence Agency (United States)
CIS	Commonwealth of Independent States
CONGO	Conference of Non-governmental Organizations in Consultative Relationship with the United Nations
CSD	Commission on Sustainable Development
DAC	Development Assistance Committee of the OECD
Da'esh	al-Dawla al-Islamiya (also known as ISIL or ISIS)
DaO	Delivering as One
DESA	Department of Economic and Social Affairs
DHA	Department of Humanitarian Affairs
DPA	Department of Political Affairs
DPI	Department of Public Information

DPKO	Department of Peacekeeping Operations
DPPA	Department of Political and Peacebuilding Affairs (proposed)
DPO	Department of Peace Operations (proposed)
DRC	Democratic Republic of the Congo
ECA	Economic Commission for Africa
ECE	Economic Commission for Europe
ECLAC	Economic Commission for Latin America and the Caribbean
ECOSOC	Economic and Social Council
ECOWAS	Economic Community of West African States
EOSG	Executive Office of the Secretary-General
ERC	Emergency Relief Coordinator
ESCAP	Economic and Social Commission for Asia and the Pacific
ESCWA	Economic and Social Commission for Western Asia
EU	European Union
FAO	Food and Agriculture Organization
G-7/G-8	Group of Seven/Eight
G-20	Group of 20
G-77	Group of 77
GATT	General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade
GCC	Gulf Cooperation Council
GDP	gross domestic product
GNI	gross national income
GNP	gross national product
GWOT	Global War on Terrorism
HDI	Human Development Index
HIV/AIDS	human immunodeficiency virus/acquired immune deficiency syndrome
HLP	High-level Panel
HLPF	High-level Political Forum
HPG	Humanitarian Policy Group
HRC	Human Rights Council
HRI	Humanitarian Responses Index
IAEA	International Atomic Energy Agency
IASC	Inter-Agency Standing Committee
IBRD	International Bank for Reconstruction and Development [World Bank]
ICANN	Internet Corporation for Assigned Names and Numbers

ICAO	International Civil Aviation Organization
ICC	International Criminal Court
ICCPR	International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights
ICISS	International Commission on Intervention and State Sovereignty
ICESCR	International Covenant on Economic, Social and Cultural Rights
ICJ	International Court of Justice
ICRC	International Committee of the Red Cross
ICTR	International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda
ICTY	International Criminal Tribunal for the former Yugoslavia
IDP	internally displaced person
IFAD	International Fund for Agricultural Development
IFI	International Financial Institution
IFRC	International Federation of the Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies
IGO	intergovernmental organization
IHL	international humanitarian law
IHR	International Health Regulations
ILC	International Law Commission
ILO	International Labour Organization
IMF	International Monetary Fund
IMO	International Maritime Organization
INSTRAW	International Research and Training Institute for the Advancement of Women
IO	international organization
IPCC	Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change
IRC	International Rescue Committee
IRO	International Refugee Organization
ISIL	Islamic State of Iraq and the Levant (also known as ISIS or Da'esh)
ITU	International Telecommunication Union
MDG	Millennium Development Goal
MONUSCO	Mission de l'Organisation des Nations-Unies pour la Stabilisation en République Démocratique du Congo
MSC	Military Staff Committee
MSF	Médecins Sans Frontières (Doctors without Borders)
NAM	Non-Aligned Movement
NATO	North Atlantic Treaty Organization

NGO	non-governmental organization
NIEO	New International Economic Order
OAS	Organization of American States
OAU	Organization of African Unity
OBOR	One Belt One Road Initiative
OCHA	Office for the Coordination of Humanitarian Affairs
ODA	official development assistance
OECD	Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development
OfFP	Oil-for-Food Programme
OHCHR	Office of the High Commissioner for Human Rights
OIC	Organisation of Islamic Cooperation
ONUC	United Nations Operation in the Congo
OPCW	Organization for the Prohibition of Chemical Weapons
OPEC	Organization of the Petroleum Exporting Countries
OSCE	Organization for Security and Co-operation in Europe
OSG	Office of the Secretary-General
Oxfam	Oxford Committee for Famine Relief
P-5	five permanent members of the Security Council
PAHO	Pan American Health Organization
PBC	Peacebuilding Commission
PBF	Peacebuilding Fund
PBSO	Peacebuilding Support Office
PCIJ	Permanent Court of International Justice
PIF	Pacific Islands Forum
PMSC	private military and security company
POW	prisoner of war
PSC	private security contractor
PRS	protracted refugee situation
R2EP	responsibility to environmentally protect
R2P	responsibility to protect
RwP	responsibility while protecting
SCO	Shanghai Cooperation Organisation
SDG	Sustainable Development Goal
SEA	sexual exploitation and abuse

SGBV	sexual and gender-based violence
TAN	transnational advocacy network
TB	tuberculosis
TLO	transnational legal orders
TNC	transnational corporation
TOC	Transnational Organized Crime
TRIPS	Trade-Related Aspects of Intellectual Property Rights
TWAIL	Third World Approaches to International Law
UK	United Kingdom of Great Britain and Northern Ireland
UDHR	Universal Declaration of Human Rights
UNAMA	United Nations Assistance Mission in Afghanistan
UNAMI	United Nations Assistance Mission for Iraq
UNAMID	African Union-United Nations Mission in Darfur
UNCED	United Nations Conference on Environment and Development
UNCHE	United Nations Conference on the Human Environment
UNCHS	United Nations Centre for Human Settlements [Habitat]
UNCIO	United Nations Conference on International Organization
UNCLOS	United Nations Conference on the Law of the Sea
UNCTAD	United Nations Conference on Trade and Development
UNCTC	United Nations Centre on Transnational Corporations
UNDP	United Nations Development Programme
UNEF	United Nations Emergency Force
UNEP	United Nations Environment Programme
UNESCO	United Nations Educational, Scientific and Cultural Organization
UNFCCC	United Nations Framework Convention on Climate Change
UNFPA	United Nations Fund for Population Activities
UNHCR	[Office of the] United Nations High Commissioner for Refugees
UNICEF	United Nations Children's Fund
UNICITRAL	United Nations Commission on International Trade Law
UNIDO	United Nations Industrial Development Organization
UNIFEM	United Nations Development Fund for Women
UNITAR	United Nations Institute for Training and Research
UNMIS	United Nations Mission in Sudan
UNMISS	United Nations Mission in South Sudan

UNODCCP	United Nations Office for Drug Control and Crime Prevention
UNOSOM	United Nations Operation in Somalia
UNPROFOR	United Nations Protection Force (in the Former Yugoslavia)
UNRRA	United Nations Relief and Rehabilitation Administration
UNRWA	United Nations Relief and Works Agency
UNSC	United Nations Security Council
UNSO	United Nations Statistical Office
UNU	United Nations University
UPU	Universal Postal Union
US	United States of America
USSR	Union of Soviet Socialist Republics
WEF	World Economic Forum
WFP	World Food Programme
WHO	World Health Organization
WIPO	World Intellectual Property Organization
WMD	weapons of mass destruction
WMO	World Meteorological Organization
WTO	World Trade Organization
WWI/II	World War I/II

ABOUT THE CONTRIBUTORS

Amitav Acharya is Distinguished Professor of International Relations and the UNESCO Chair in Transnational Challenges and Governance at the School of International Service, American University. His recent books include: *The End of American World Order* (2018); *Constructing Global Order: Agency and Change in World Politics* (2018); and *Why Govern? Rethinking Demand and Progress in Global Governance* (editor, 2016). His articles have appeared in *International Organization*, *International Security*, *International Studies Quarterly*, *World Politics*, and *Journal of Peace Research*. He is a Past President of the International Studies Association.

José E. Alvarez is the Herbert and Rose Rubin Professor of International Law at New York University Law School, who has served as President of the American Society of International and is now the co-editor-in-chief of the *American Journal of International Law*. His books include *The Public International Law Regime Governing International Investment* (2011) and *The Impact of International Organizations on International Law* (2016), based on courses at The Hague and Xiamen Academies of International Law, respectively. He has been an adviser to the ICC first prosecutor and is a member of the Institut de Droit International.

Michael Barnett is University Professor of International Affairs and Political Science at George Washington University. Among his books are *Eyewitness to Genocide: The United Nations and Rwanda* (2013); *Empire of Humanity: A History of Humanitarianism* (2011); and *The Star and the Stripes: A History of the Foreign Policies of American Jews* (2016).

Jane Boulden is a Professor at the Royal Military College of Canada and held a Canada Research Chair in International Relations and Security Studies (2004–2014). From 2000 until 2004 she was a MacArthur Research Fellow at the Centre for International Studies, University of Oxford. Her books include three co-edited volumes: *Responding to Conflict in Africa, the United Nations and Regional Organizations* (editor, 2013); *The United Nations and Nuclear Orders* (2009); and *Terrorism and the UN: Before and After September 11th* (2004).

Charlotte Bunch is Distinguished Professor in Women's and Gender Studies and Founding Director and Senior Scholar at the Center for Women's Global Leadership, Rutgers University; she is an activist, writer, and organizer in feminist, LGBT, and human rights movements. She was previously a fellow at the Institute for Policy Studies and founded *Women's Liberation and Quest: A Feminist Quarterly*. Her involvement

at the UN includes advocating for women's rights as human rights and the creation of UN Women. She has edited nine anthologies and authored *Passionate Politics: Feminist Theory in Action* (1987), and *Demanding Accountability: The Global Campaign and Vienna Tribunal for Women's Human Rights* (1994).

Gian Luca Burci is Adjunct Professor of International Law at the Geneva Graduate Institute of International and Development Studies and Senior Fellow in the Global Health Centre. He served in the International Atomic Energy Agency (1988–1989); the Office of the Legal Counsel of the United Nations (1989–1998); and the Legal Office of the World Health Organization (1998–2016). He was Legal Counsel of the World Health Organization between 2005 and 2016. He holds a doctorate in international law from the University of Genoa and has published widely on topics ranging from global health law and governance to the law of international organizations, international immunities, and the functions of the Security Council.

Jeff Crisp has held senior positions with UNHCR, where he was Head of Policy Development and Evaluation from 1999 to 2013, as well as the Independent Commission for International Humanitarian Issues, the Global Commission on International Migration, and Refugees International. He has also worked as an academic and journalist. He holds an MA and PhD in African Studies and Political Science from the University of Birmingham. He is an Associate Fellow at Chatham House, and a Research Associate at the Refugee Studies Centre, University of Oxford.

Barbara Crossette was United Nations Bureau Chief of *the New York Times* from 1994 to 2001; earlier she was its chief correspondent in Southeast Asia and South Asia and is the author of several books on the region. She is UN correspondent of *The Nation*, a consulting editor and writer for PassBlue.com, a member of the Foreign Policy Association's editorial advisory board, a trustee of the Carnegie Council for Ethics in International Affairs, and a member of the Council on Foreign Relations.

Sam Daws is Director, Project on UN Governance and Reform, in the Centre for International Studies at Oxford University, and directs the international political consultancy, 3D Strategy. He has spent thirty years in UN-related roles, including as Deputy Director (United Nations, Prime Minister's Post-2015 Development Team) in the UK Cabinet Office; Senior Principal Research Analyst, Multilateral Policy Directorate, FCO; First Officer in the Executive Office of UN Secretary-General Kofi Annan; Executive Director, UNA-UK; Senior Advisor and UK Representative, UN Foundation; and Visiting Fellow, International Law at Cambridge University. He has co-authored or edited fourteen books on the United Nations.

Dennis Dijkzeul Professor of Conflict and Organization Research at the Social Science School and the Institute of International Law of Peace and Armed Conflict at Ruhr University Bochum, Germany. He was the founding Director of the Humanitarian Affairs Program at the School of International and Public Affairs, Columbia University. He has worked as consultant for UN organizations and NGOs in Africa, Europe, Central

Asia, and Latin America. His main research interests concern the management of international organizations and the roles of the local population in humanitarian crises.

Sebastian von Einsiedel has been the Director of UN University's Centre for Policy Research since its inception in 2014. He has worked in and around the United Nations for fifteen years, including with the Executive Office of the Secretary-General, the Department of Political Affairs, the UN Mission to Nepal, and the International Peace Institute. He has written widely on the UN's role in peace and security and is the co-editor of two books, *The UN Security Council in the 21st Century* (2016); and *Nepal in Transition* (2012).

Martha Finnemore is University Professor of Political Science and International Affairs at George Washington University, Washington, D.C. She has written widely about international institutions in fields ranging from finance and cybersecurity to human rights and military intervention. Among her books are *Rules for the World: International Organizations in Global Politics* (2004); *The Purpose of Intervention: Changing Beliefs about the Use of Force* (2003); and *National Interests in International Society* (1996).

Jacques Fomerand had a lengthy career with the UN, and when he retired in 2003 he was director of the North American UN University Office. Since then he has taught in the UN Program at Occidental College, Los Angeles, where he is assistant director. He also teaches at New York University, and John Jay College of Criminal Justice of The City University of New York. He has published widely on international relations, international organization, human rights, North–South relations, and human security.

Sakiko Fukuda-Parr is Professor of International Affairs at The New School. She has published extensively on development and human rights. From 1995 to 2004 she was director of the UNDP *Human Development Report* and is currently Vice Chair of the Committee on Development Policy. Her recent publications include *Millennium Development Goals: Ideas, Interests and Influence* (2017); and *Fulfilling Social and Economic Rights* (2015), which received the 2016 Best Book in Human Rights Scholarship Award from the American Political Science Association.

Richard J. Goldstone was a judge in South Africa for twenty-three years, the last nine as a Justice of the Constitutional Court. From August 1994 to September 1996, he was Chief Prosecutor of the United Nations International Criminal Tribunals for the former Yugoslavia and Rwanda. He is an honorary Bencher of the Inner Temple, London, and an honorary fellow of St. John's College, Cambridge. He is an honorary member of the Association of the Bar of the City of New York and a foreign member of the American Academy of Arts and Sciences. He is the Honorary President of the Human Rights Institute of the International Bar Association.

Leon Gordenker is Professor Emeritus of Politics at Princeton University. He has observed the United Nations system from its founding, including service in the UN Secretariat and as a consultant. His numerous publications include studies of the UN

Secretary-General, NGOs, international responses to AIDS, treatment of refugees, economic development projects, and other multilateral efforts.

Richard Gowan teaches conflict resolution at Columbia University's School of International and Public Affairs and is a fellow at the European Council on Foreign Relations and New York University's Center on International Cooperation. He has worked as a consultant with various international organizations including the UN Department of Political Affairs, UK Foreign and Commonwealth Office, the International Crisis Group, and United States Holocaust Memorial Museum. He has written on UN affairs for publications including *The American Interest*, *Global Governance*, *International Peacekeeping*, and *Politico*. He is a weekly columnist for *World Politics Review*.

Michèle Griffin is a senior policy advisor to UN Secretary-General António Guterres. She was previously director of the Policy Planning Unit in the Executive Office of Secretary-General Ban Ki-moon. She has served for over two decades in UN policy positions, including also in DPA and UNDP; earlier she was a delegate representing Ireland at the United Nations. She played a role in establishing the UN Mediation Support Unit and in several UN reform efforts such as the 2005 World Summit. Before joining the UN, she worked in the EU and in several think tanks in Washington, D.C. Her BA in European Studies is from Trinity College, Dublin, and her MSc in International Relations is from the London School of Economics. She has been an adjunct professor at Columbia University and has published widely on UN matters.

Monica Herz is Associate Professor at the Catholic University of Rio de Janeiro's Institute of International Relations. Her PhD is from the London School of Economics and Political Science, and she is the author of *OAS Global Governance Away from the Media* (2010); co-author of *Organizações Internacionais: histórias e práticas* (2004); and *Ecuador vs. Peru: Peacemaking Amid Rivalry* (2002). She has written numerous articles and book chapters on Latin American security, nuclear, and regional governance, and Brazilian foreign policy.

Amy Scott Hill has worked in and around the United Nations for over a decade, including with the International Peace Institute, Centre on International Cooperation, Executive Office of the Secretary-General, the Departments of Political Affairs, Peacekeeping and Field Support, the Darfur mediation and the UN Office to the African Union. She holds a PhD from the University of Oxford, where she also taught international politics. She is the co-author of *The UN Secretariat: A Brief History* and a number of articles on the UN's peace and security architecture.

Maria Ivanova is Associate Professor of Global Governance at the McCormack Graduate School of Policy and Global Studies, University of Massachusetts Boston, where she directs the Center for Governance and Sustainability. She is a member of the Scientific Advisory Board of the UN Secretary-General and an Andrew Carnegie Fellow. Her research focuses on the performance and effectiveness of international

environmental organizations and on the implementation of global environmental conventions. Her international relations and environmental policy scholar work has been recognized for bringing analytical rigor and innovative input to the international negotiations on reforming the UN system for environment.

Richard Jolly is Honorary Professor of the Institute of Development Studies at the University of Sussex, where he was director (1972–1981). He served the UN as an assistant secretary-general, first as UNICEF's Deputy-Executive Director (1982–1995) and then as UNDP's principal coordinator of the *Human Development Report* (1996–2000). From 2000–2010, he was a Co-director of the UN Intellectual History Project and lead author of the summary volume, *UN Ideas That Changed the World* (2009). He has written or co-authored many books and articles about development and the UN, including *UNICEF: Global Governance that Works* (2014).

James O. C. Jonah is Senior Fellow at the Ralph Bunche Institute for International Studies of The CUNY Graduate Center, where he received a Carnegie Corporation of New York Scholar Grant to prepare his memoirs. He served Sierra Leone as Minister of Finance, Development, and Economic Planning and as Permanent Representative to the United Nations. He was a member of the UN Secretariat from 1963 to 1994 in a variety of capacities and retired as under-secretary-general for Political Affairs.

Christer Jönsson is Professor Emeritus of Political Science at Lund University, Sweden, and a member of the Royal Swedish Academy of Sciences. He was Board Chair of the Academic Council on the United Nations System (2009–2012). In addition to international organization, his research interests include international negotiation, diplomacy, and the role of transnational networks in global governance. His publications include *Communication in International Bargaining* (1990); *International Cooperation in Response to AIDS* (co-author 1995); *Essence of Diplomacy* (co-author 2005); and *The Opening Up of International Organizations* (co-author 2013) along with several book chapter and articles in academic journals.

Lucas Kello is Senior Lecturer in International Relations at Oxford University. He serves as Director of the Centre for Technology and Global Affairs, a research initiative on the impact of modern technology on international relations, government, and society. He is also co-Director of the interdisciplinary Centre for Doctoral Training in Cyber Security at the Department of Computer Science. His recent publications include *The Virtual Weapon and International Order* (2017) and 'The Meaning of the Cyber Revolution: Perils to Theory and Statecraft' in *International Security* (2013).

W. Andy Knight is Professor of International Relations at the University of Alberta and past Chair of its Political Science Department. In 2016 he completed a term as director of the Institute of International Relations, The University of the West Indies. A Fellow of the Royal Society of Canada, his research focuses on the UN, global politics, and sustainable peace. His recent books include: *Female Suicide Bombings: A Critical Gendered Approach* (with Tanya Narozhna, 2016); *Remapping the Americas: Trends in*

Region-Making (with Julian Castro-Rea and Hamid Ghany, 2014); and *The Routledge Handbook of the Responsibility to Protect* (2012).

Keith Krause is Professor of International Relations at the Geneva Graduate Institute of International and Development Studies and Director of its Centre on Conflict, Development and Peacebuilding. Until 2016, he was Programme Director of the *Small Arms Survey*. He obtained his D.Phil in International Relations from Balliol College, Oxford, where he was a Rhodes Scholar. His research concentrates on international security, arms control, post-conflict peacebuilding, and security governance. He has published *Arms and the State* (1992), edited or co-edited *Critical Security Studies* (1997), *Culture and Security* (1999), and *Armed Groups and Contemporary Conflicts* (2009), as well as having authored numerous articles and book chapters.

Charlotte Ku is Professor of Law and Associate Dean for Global Programs at the Texas A&M University School of Law. Previously, she was Professor of Law and Assistant Dean for Graduate and International Legal Studies at the University of Illinois College of Law. She also served as Acting Director of the Lauterpacht Centre for International Law, University of Cambridge, and was Executive Director and Executive Vice President of the American Society of International Law (1994–2006). Her research focuses on international law and global governance. She is the author of *International Law, International Relations, and Global Governance* (2012).

Maivân Clech Lãm is Professor *Emerita* at the CUNY Graduate Center and former associate director of its Ralph Bunche Institute for International Studies. She has also taught at the CUNY School of Law, Washington College of Law at American University, and the University of Pennsylvania Law School. As international law advisor to the American Indian Law Alliance, she assisted in drafting the UN Declaration on the Rights of Indigenous Peoples. Her MA and M.Phil are from Yale University, JD from the University of Hawaii, and LLM from the University of Wisconsin-Madison. Her publications include *At the Edge of the State: Indigenous Peoples and Self-Determination* (2000).

Jeffrey Laurenti has served as executive director of policy studies at the United Nations Association of the United States and as senior fellow and director of foreign policy programs at The Century Foundation. He directed international task forces on peacemaking in Afghanistan and on UNESCO, and was deputy director of the United Nations Foundation's United Nations and Global Security initiative that supported Kofi Annan's High-level Panel on Threats, Challenges and Change. He has written on multilateral capacities for conflict resolution, human rights protection, environment, and international organization financing. He earned his AB at Harvard University and MPA at Princeton University.

George A. Lopez is the Hesburgh Professor of Peace Studies Emeritus at the University of Notre Dame. In 2013–2015, he was Vice President of the United States Institute of Peace. Since 1992, he has advised various international agencies and governments about

designing targeted financial sanctions and limiting sanctions negative humanitarian impact. He has authored over forty articles and book chapters and authored or edited eight books on economic sanctions. From October 2010 through July 2011, he served on the United Nations Panel of Experts for Monitoring and Implementing UN Sanctions on North Korea.

Edward C. Luck is the Arnold A. Saltzman Professor of Professional Practice in International and Public Affairs and Director of the Specialization in International Conflict Resolution, School of International and Public Affairs, Columbia University. From 2008 to 2012, he served as the UN's first Special Adviser to the Secretary-General on the Responsibility to Protect (R2P). For four decades, he has been involved in efforts to renovate and reform the United Nations.

David M. Malone, a former Canadian Ambassador to the UN and President of the International Peace Institute, is currently Rector of the UN University and under-secretary-general of the UN. Among other publications, he has written four books about the UN Security Council, including case studies of its decision-making on Iraq and Haiti. In 2017 he chaired the Global Migration Group of International Organizations and Agencies working on aspects of migration.

Rama Mani is the Founder of Theatre of Transformation Academy and a Senior Research Associate at the University of Oxford's Centre for International Studies. She is on the faculty of the Geneva Academy for Human Rights and Humanitarian Law, and an associate fellow at the Geneva Centre for Security Policy. She is a councilor of the World Future Council. She was previously senior external relations officer for the Commission on Global Governance and executive director of ICES in Sri Lanka. Her PhD in Political Science is from the University of Cambridge and MA from Johns Hopkins University. She received the 2013 Peter Becker Peace Prize in Germany.

Justin Morris is Senior Lecturer in the School of Law and Politics at the University of Hull and formerly head of the Department of Politics and International Studies (2007–2013). His primary research interests include the great powers and the notion of great power responsibility; the UN Security Council; and R2P (specifically in relation to forcible intervention). He is co-author of *Regional Peacekeeping in the Post-Cold War Era* (2000) and co-editor of *International Conflict and Security Law: Essays in Memory of Hilaire McCoubrey* (2005).

Craig N. Murphy is Betty Freyhof Johnson '44 Professor at Wellesley College. He is past chair of the Academic Council on the UN System, past president of the International Studies Association, and recipient of ISA's Distinguished International Political Economy Scholar Award. His recent books include a Portuguese translation of *International Organization and Industrial Change: Global Governance since 1850* (2014), a Japanese translation of *The UN Development Programme: A Better Way?* (2014). He is currently working on the forthcoming *Standards Bearers*, coauthored with JoAnne Yates.

Edward Newman is Professor of International Security in the School of Politics and International Studies, University of Leeds, where he works on intrastate armed conflict, international intervention, peacebuilding, and reconstruction in conflict-prone and post-conflict societies, and the evolving security agenda. He previously worked at the University of Birmingham and UN University, where he was Director of Studies on Conflict and Security in the Peace and Governance Programme. His latest book is *Understanding Civil Wars: Continuity and Change in Intrastate Conflict* (2014).

Roland Paris is University Research Chair in International Security and Governance at the University of Ottawa and the author of numerous works on peacebuilding and international intervention in conflict-affected areas; he also was the founding director of the Centre for International Policy Studies. He has also served in several government roles, most recently as Senior Advisor on Global Affairs and Defence to the Prime Minister of Canada.

Christopher K. Penny is Associate Professor at the Norman Paterson School of International Affairs at Carleton University, Ottawa. His scholarship examines international law governing the use of force, in particular the law of armed conflict, and Security Council authority to address traditional and non-traditional threats. As a reserve military lawyer, he has participated in disarmament negotiations as well as multinational military operations, including the 2011 intervention in Libya.

M. J. Peterson is a Professor of Political Science at the University of Massachusetts Amherst. Her research focuses on formal organizations and informal practices through which governments pursue cooperative efforts to address cross-border problems. She is the author of *The General Assembly in World Policies* (1986), *The UN General Assembly* (2005), and studies of the global environmental cooperation, the Antarctic Treaty system, and the formulation of international law governing human activity in outer space.

Richard Ponzio is Director of the Just Security 2020 Program at the Stimson Center. Previously, he led the Global Governance Program at The Hague Institute for Global Justice, where he served as Project Director for the Albright-Gambari Commission on Global Security, Justice and Governance. Earlier, he coordinated Secretary Hillary Clinton's and later John Kerry's New Silk Road initiative at the State Department. He served in New York and numerous conflict zones with the United Nations and has published widely, including *Democratic Peacebuilding: Aiding Afghanistan and other Fragile States* (2011).

Peter Romaniuk is Associate Professor of Political Science at The City University of New York's John Jay College of Criminal Justice. He co-directs its Center on Terrorism and is a Senior Fellow at the Global Center on Cooperative Security. His research interests include counterterrorism, countering violent extremism, and multilateral sanctions. His recent articles have appeared in *Crime, Law and Social Change* and *The RUSI Journal*. He co-edits *Global Governance*, the journal of the Academic Council on

the UN System and is the author of *Multilateral Counterterrorism: The Global Politics of Cooperation and Contestation* (2010).

Gert Rosenthal is a Guatemalan economist who has alternated his career between public service in Guatemala and international organizations. He led the National Planning Secretariat before joining the UN, where he served ten years as ECLAC's Executive Secretary. After retiring, he served as Permanent Representative of Guatemala to the UN, then as Foreign Minister, followed by a second tour to the UN to lead the Guatemalan delegation to the Security Council (2012–2013). He was the Chair of the Advisory Group of Experts for the 2015 review of the UN's peacebuilding architecture and recently authored *Inside the United Nations: Multilateral Diplomacy Up Close* (2017).

Natalie Samarasinghe is Executive Director of the United Nations Association-UK (UNA-UK), where she has worked since 2006. In 2013, she co-founded the '1 for 7 Billion' campaign to improve the selection process for the UN Secretary-General. She is an editor for WITAN Media, a trustee of the documentary foundation Doc Society, an advisor to the Sri Lanka Campaign for Peace and Justice, and on the Steering Committees of the World Federation of UNAs and the International Coalition for the Responsibility to Protect. She previously worked in local government and for the University of Oxford.

Nico J. Schrijver is Professor of International Law at Leiden University. He is also State Councillor in the Council of State of the Netherlands and a former member of the Dutch Senate and the chair of its Foreign Affairs Committee. He is a member of the Royal Netherlands Academy of Sciences and the current president of the *Institut de droit international*. Previously, he served as a member and vice-chair of the UN Committee on Economic, Social and Cultural Rights, president of the International Law Association, and chair Academic Council on the UN System. He has appeared as counsel before the International Court of Justice and other international tribunals. He is the author of three books on global natural resource management and has co-authored or edited another five volumes on the United Nations.

Mike Schroeder is Senior Professorial Lecturer & Director of the Global Governance, Politics & Security Program at the School of International Service, American University. He publishes on global governance, the UN system, the UN Secretary-General, and executive leadership in international organizations. His research appears in a range of scholarly journals, and he regularly provides commentary in major media outlets.

Waheguru Pal Singh Sidhu is Visiting Professor at the Center for Global Affairs and Non-Resident Visiting Fellow at the Center on International Cooperation, New York University. He is also an associate fellow at the Geneva Centre for Security Policy and a non-resident senior fellow at the Brookings Institution. He has researched, written, and taught about the role of regional organization in UN peace operations. He has published widely on emerging powers (especially India), the evolving world order, and UN reform. He is editor of *Shaping the Emerging World: India and Multilateral Governance* (2013) and a regular columnist for the Indian newspaper, *Mint*.

Ramesh Thakur is Professor in the Crawford School of Public Policy, Australian National University and Editor-in-Chief of *Global Governance*. He was Senior Vice Rector of the UN University (and UN assistant secretary-general), a commissioner and a principal author of *The Responsibility to Protect*, principal writer of Secretary-General Kofi Annan's second reform report, and Founding Director of the Balsillie School of International Affairs in Waterloo, Ontario. Educated in India and Canada, he has taught in Fiji, New Zealand, Australia, and Canada. He has written and edited over fifty books and 400 articles and book chapters.

Paul Wapner is Professor of Global Environmental Politics in the School of International Service at American University. His books include *Living through the End of Nature* (2010); *Global Environmental Politics: From Person to Planet* (2015), *Reimagining Climate Change* (2016), and *Is Wildness Over?* (forthcoming). His current work focuses on climate suffering—the lived experience of the most vulnerable at this moment of climate intensification.

Thomas G. Weiss is Presidential Professor of Political Science at The City University of New York's Graduate Center and Director Emeritus of the Ralph Bunche Institute for International Studies; he also is Eminent Scholar at Kyung Hee University. He was 2016 Andrew Carnegie Fellow, Past President of the International Studies Association and recipient of its '2016 Distinguished IO Scholar Award,' Board Chair of the Academic Council on the UN System, Editor of *Global Governance*, and Research Director of the International Commission on Intervention and State Sovereignty. He has authored or edited some fifty-five books and 250 articles and book chapters about international peace and security, humanitarian action, and sustainable development.

Ralph Wilde is based at University College London and currently engaged in an interdisciplinary research project on the extraterritorial application of international human rights law. His book *International Territorial Administration: How Trusteeship and the Civilizing Mission Never Went Away* (2008) was awarded the 2009 Certificate of Merit of the American Society of International Law. He previously served on the executive bodies of the American and European Societies of International Law, and the International Law Association.

Rorden Wilkinson is Deputy Pro-Vice-Chancellor for Education and Innovation and Professor of Global Political Economy at the University of Sussex. He teaches and researches in the areas of international trade, global development, international organization, and global governance. His most recent books include: *International Organization and Global Governance* (2018); *What's the Point of International Relations?* (2017); *What's Wrong with the WTO and How to Fix it* (2014); *Trade, Poverty, Development: Getting Beyond the WTO's Doha Deadlock* (2013); and *The Millennium Development Goals and Beyond: Global Development after 2015* (2012). With Thomas G. Weiss, he edits the Routledge *Global Institutions* series.

Ngaire Woods is the Founding Dean of the Blavatnik School of Government, Oxford University, and Professor of Global Economic Governance. Her research focuses on global economic governance, the challenges of globalization, global development, and the role of international institutions. She has served as an advisor to the UNDP, the IMF, the G-20, the Commonwealth, the African Development Bank, and the Asian Infrastructure Investment Bank.

PART I

INTRODUCTION
AND ORIGINS

CHAPTER 1

THE UNITED NATIONS

Continuity and Change

THOMAS G. WEISS AND SAM DAWS

THE story of the United Nations since its establishment in 1945 has been one of continuity and change—as it approaches its seventy-fifth anniversary, the UN is over seven decades old and over seven decades young. It has adapted to an ever-changing geopolitical backdrop—the Cold War, the turbulent 1990s, the turn of the millennium, September 11th, and the rise of new powers—and to the consequent ebbs and flows of multilateral engagement. Over the next twenty years the pace of continued technological and geopolitical change will likely bring unprecedented challenges and opportunities for the world organization.

New challenges to international peace and security and human survival have arisen, and innovative solutions have advanced humanity's condition. New non-state actors have appeared on the world stage, and older ones have occasionally been transformed. New conventions and norms have proliferated. New intergovernmental initiatives and institutions have been established. Yet, despite these challenges and advances, decision-making in world politics and international organizations remains dominated by states, the marquee players on a more crowded global stage.

The world thus still reflects what Hedley Bull calls 'anarchy',¹ the absence of a central global authority. At the same time a growing 'matrix' of organized transnational activity—from private-sector investment to individuals communicating in cyberspace—occurs largely unmediated by national authorities. This complex reality may increasingly pose a challenge for a United Nations that remains largely governed and constrained by its member states. Hence, Adam Roberts and Benedict Kingsbury's evaluation a quarter century ago in *United Nations, Divided World* remains valid: 'international society has been modified, but not totally transformed.'²

The UN does not exist in isolation from the world that it is attempting to serve. Many scholars and practitioners resist the notion that there has been a fundamental change in world politics. Essentially, they are right in claiming that the more things change, the more they stay the same. Certainly the fundamental units of the system—sovereign

states—are here to stay. States are still organized to pursue their perceived national interests in a world without any meaningful overall authority.

CHANGE AND CONTINUITY

This fundamental continuity of state power still therefore pervades the chapters in this second edition of *The Oxford Handbook on the United Nations*, as it does world politics; but it would be hard to argue that substantial change has not also marked the world organization since 1945. Indeed, one could even argue that, were they reincarnated as diplomats or UN or NGO officials, the founders in San Francisco would have difficulty recognizing the size and complexity of the current world body. This *Handbook* seeks to make a contribution to greater analytical precision and historical reflection about the balance between change and continuity within the United Nations. The most pertinent changes can be conveniently grouped under four headings: the emergence of new threats and opportunities; the increasing role of non-state actors; the reformulation of state sovereignty; and the emergence of a multipolar world after a short-lived unipolar order and a longer bipolar one. What follows is an overview of the nature and role of each of these in today's international system.

New Threats and New Opportunities

New threats and new opportunities surpass the ability of individual states, however powerful, to address or harness on their own. Many of the challenges central to this *Handbook* were scarcely on the international radar screen in 1945. For instance, environmental degradation, population growth, urbanization, and women's rights came onto the international agenda during the global conferences of the 1970s;³ the AIDS pandemic and the need for human development and human security appeared in the 1980s and 1990s. Moreover, other challenges that have long languished on the agenda—terrorism and self-determination come immediately to mind—have a heightened profile.

In short, war, human rights abuse, and poverty have persisted throughout the last seven decades. Judgments about the relative success or failure of the UN in addressing such perennial blights on the human condition can only be made with the recognition that many of these 'old' threats have themselves changed in nature over time, and that praise for success or criticism for failure cannot simply be placed at the door of the organization. There are very few simple and quick formulas for peace and prosperity in the face of continued violence and poverty.

The threat of armed conflict was foremost in the minds of the architects of the UN Charter, the Preamble to which—in an unabashedly idealistic fashion—pledged members 'to save succeeding generations from the scourge of war.' This threat endures or, to paraphrase the Prophet Isaiah found in the title of Inis Claude's classic early UN

textbook, too few swords have been beaten into ploughshares.⁴ There has been, however, a significant change in the patterns of political violence. While interstate war is not yet a thing of the past—as demonstrated by the decision by the United States and the United Kingdom to go to war against Iraq in 2003—the UN’s original focus on war between states has largely given way to the dominant reality of intrastate warfare, with a greater role than previously for transnational terrorist movements. Another challenge for the United Nations is that interpersonal and gang violence now kills many more people than political violence, yet international institutions and international legal frameworks are insufficiently developed to tackle such criminal violence, which is increasingly fueled by transnational organized crime networks.

Intrastate—or ‘civil’ or ‘non-international’—wars (i.e., taking place primarily within the borders of a state and involving indigenous armed factions) in the period 1990–2017 accounted for over 90 percent of armed conflicts that resulted in more than 1,000 deaths. But the definition of ‘intrastate’ has itself become increasingly difficult to pin down. Many such conflicts since 2010 have involved transnational terrorist elements, and neighboring states supporting one or more factions by ‘proxy.’⁵ It is conventional wisdom that civilians have become the main victims in such civil wars—estimated at up to 90 percent, itself a notable reversal from the early twentieth century when soldiers accounted for that percentage.⁶ New evidence raises questions about such statistics;⁷ other scholarship suggested a possible long-run improvement in the number of human deaths from violence, until a strong uptick in political violence was witnessed in the period 2010–2018.⁸ Not only has there been a sharp increase in the number of both battle-related deaths and terrorist casualties since 2010 compared to the previous decade, but conflicts have also become bloodier with more deaths resulting per conflict. Conflict-related deaths are, at the time of writing, concentrated mostly in the Middle East and North Africa, with smaller pockets in the Great Lakes region, the horn of Africa, and Afghanistan.

It remains difficult to measure the direct and indirect effects of war-exacerbated disease and malnutrition, but a clear pattern has emerged that the poor are increasingly concentrated in fragile and conflict-affected states, and this trend is set to continue.⁹ Moreover in 2017, the world witnessed the most people displaced by conflict since World War II. Whether or not these wars are truly ‘new’ is debatable, but clearly many of the usual dynamics have altered or been compounded. ‘Changed’ is probably a more accurate characterization of the transformation at hand as history demonstrates comparable dynamics.¹⁰

The woes of our planet are obvious. Egregious human rights violations have continued over seven decades, and many of the transitions toward national independence have ended in brutal dictatorship and a delayed path to sustainable development. Despite economic growth, the world has been left, in the new millennium, with widening gaps in wealth distribution. On the eve of the 2016 World Economic Forum in Davos, Switzerland, the poverty-fighting organization Oxfam released some startling and much-cited numbers: the world’s sixty-two richest individuals’ combined wealth was greater than that of the poorest 3.5 billion people; and the richest 1 percent of the

world's population owned more than the bottom 99 percent. Meanwhile, more than one billion people lived in extreme deprivation and poverty—defined as \$1.90 per day.¹¹

To be set against this gloomy backdrop is the fact that the last seventy-five years have also witnessed huge improvements in the living standards of the world's poorest citizens—the *average* person in a developing country is healthier, better educated, and wealthier than they were 15, 30, or 50 years ago. The next few decades promise to be revolutionary in the accelerating pace of scientific, technological, engineering, and medical discoveries and innovation. The list of new technologies which will doubtless have an impact on all our lives is simultaneously exciting and daunting—artificial intelligence and machine learning, the blockchain, automation and robotics, self-driving vehicles, unlocking the genome, biometric identification, the internet of things, the integration of renewable energy and battery storage in connected smart grids. These transformations, along with future incarnations of the internet and mobile communication devices, will increasingly offer humanity remarkable new tools to help solve some of the most intractable global problems, from human rights monitoring and humanitarian assistance to peacekeeping and sustainable development.

Technological developments will, of course, also bring new vulnerabilities for individuals and societies, which may struggle to adapt to changes in employment patterns and to the governance of a world where every day decisions that affect us are determined by complex and opaque algorithms. One of the greatest challenges for the world organization, and for Secretary-General António Guterres, will be whether the UN system can adapt sufficiently to be able to harness the many new tools that the power of human ingenuity will place at our disposal. To do so will require the UN to become less hierarchical in its decision-making, and more open to partnerships with other actors—especially with business, NGOs, foundations, city authorities, and the academic and scientific communities—while retaining the confidence and essential support of diverse member states. Guterres is the first Secretary-General with a science background, and he also benefits from the framing of the Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs) and the 2015 Addis Ababa Action Agenda on Financing for Development, which both recognized the need for new and innovative partnerships. The stakes are high. As Guterres's predecessor Ban Ki-moon frequently reminded us, we are the first ever generation of humanity with the opportunity—the tools and resources—to end endemic poverty, but also the very last generation with the chance to prevent catastrophic climate change.

The Importance of New Actors?

The second type of substantial change reflected in many of this *Handbook's* chapters is the burgeoning role of actors other than states. The proliferation of 'uncivil' actors—from belligerents and warlords to 'spoilers' and criminals whose interests are served by continued armed conflict¹²—is certainly a factor behind the ugly reality of contemporary civil wars and fragile states.

However, the UN as an arena has also traditionally provided space for what is increasingly called ‘global civil society’ to interact with states, to articulate demands and solutions, and to pursue their own interests. Charter Article 71 carved out space for non-governmental organizations (NGOs) to engage with the United Nations. But during the Cold War, the Soviet bloc and many developing countries with totalitarian regimes resisted independent and dissident voices. Since the thawing of East–West relations in the late-1980s, however, human rights advocates, gender activists, developmentalists, and groups of indigenous peoples have become more visible and vocal, more operational and essential in contexts that were once thought to be the exclusive preserve of states.

The sheer growth in NGO numbers, in particular, has been nothing short of remarkable. *The Yearbook of International Organizations* has tracked the founding and growth of NGOs over the twentieth and twenty-first centuries. The data dramatically demonstrate the changing landscape.¹³ Over the last century, more than 38,000 IGOs and international NGOs were founded—a rate of more than one per day. New ones are added and old ones disappear, however, and the growth in international organizations was unevenly distributed—more than 33,000 of these organizations were founded after 1950. Moreover, almost half of all organizations created in the twentieth century were established in its final two decades.

In addition to NGOs, for-profit businesses and the media are key non-governmental actors that relate directly to the United Nations. Corporations have always been an important lobbying presence. In addition, their essential contribution to the UN’s work—as well as their labor, social, and environmental obligations—were clearly recognized in Kofi Annan’s Global Compact initiative, and increasingly in practical partnership agreements between UN specialized agencies, funds, and programs and individual multinational corporations.¹⁴ The media’s influence is widely acknowledged. Indeed, Secretary-General Boutros-Ghali suggested that for some decisions they effectively constitute a ‘16th member of the Security Council.’

The presence of alternative voices has become integral to the UN system’s processes of deliberation¹⁵ and to world politics more generally. International discussions are more pluralistic, and international decisions necessarily reflect a wider array of perspectives. Indeed, and as a result, the term ‘international community’ can be confusing when used in relationship to the UN system and multilateralism more broadly. While international lawyers continue to use it to refer narrowly and euphemistically to the ‘community of peace-loving states,’ other observers frequently employ it far more loosely and expansively. Some include not merely states but also their creations in the form of IGOs, while still other observers also use the term to embrace some of the non-state actors that contribute to the resolution of global problems.

Reinforced or Reduced State Sovereignty?

Linked to the proliferation of threats and actors is the third dominant element of change—the reformulation of state sovereignty. Paradoxically, the UN has been

responsible for both the triumph *and* the erosion of state sovereignty. There are almost four times as many member states in 2018 as signed the Charter in June 1945. The Charter emphasized self-determination in response to colonialism, and decolonization is virtually complete. And since the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991 and the implosion of the former Yugoslavia beginning the following year, the idea of the sovereign state has attained virtually universal resonance.

At the same time, however, sovereignty has never been as sacrosanct and immutable as many believe. Because it has been routinely violated or overlooked in so many ways, Stephen Krasner went so far as to describe it as ‘organized hypocrisy’.¹⁶

The recasting of state sovereignty over the UN’s lifetime is rooted in three factors. The first is that technology and communications have remolded the nature of the global economy and economic aspirations.¹⁷ The oft-used term ‘globalization’ remains contested.¹⁸ Some observers note that it has been occurring since the earliest trade expeditions (e.g., the Silk Road). Others suggest that the current era of globalization is unique in the rapidity of its spread and the intensity of the interactions that result. It is difficult to deny the processes of increased interconnectivity across the planet and the worldwide dimensions of human, financial, commercial, and cultural flows that require no passport. For the latter, the UN’s normative efforts have been combined with technology to suggest what one analyst called ‘the end of geography’.¹⁹

Wherever one stands in the debate about globalization’s reach, pace, and impact on state sovereignty, it is clear that definitions of vital national interests—often called *raison d’état*—are expanding and being continually redefined. Their pursuit is not exclusive because sometimes state actors are playing in a non-zero-sum game. Despite recent uncertainties—related to the common currency, refugees and migrants, and Brexit—the EU is still cited as an example of sovereignty being recast if not transcended, a process long ago described by Ernst Haas as venturing ‘beyond the nation-state’.²⁰ Globalization creates losers as well as winners. The rapid growth of global markets has not seen the parallel development of social and economic institutions to ensure their smooth and efficient functioning, and the global rules on trade and finance produce asymmetric effects on rich and poor countries, at times to the detriment of the latter. This too means that some states are more or less ‘sovereign’ than others.

The second factor explaining the paradox is that the content of sovereignty itself has expanded to accommodate human rights—reflecting the unresolved tension in the Charter between respect for the domestic jurisdiction of states and the imperatives of individual rights. In his 1992 *An Agenda for Peace*, Secretary-General Boutros Boutros-Ghali summarized: ‘The time for absolute and exclusive sovereignty, however, has passed; its theory was never matched by reality.’²¹ Of course, for some time states have chosen to shed bits of sovereignty in signing international conventions or trade pacts. Multilateral treaties, for instance, now number in the thousands—as of 2018 over 560 multilateral treaties utilized the depository function of the UN Secretary-General. But for human rights in particular, the trade-off is not always a conscious choice but rather involves a blurring of domestic and international jurisdictions over time.

Particularly clear was the willingness to override sovereignty by using military force for humanitarian purposes, beginning in the 1990s. The rationale came from Frances M. Deng and Roberta Cohen's notion of 'sovereignty as responsibility,' developed to protect internally displaced persons; from Secretary-General Annan's articulation of 'two sovereignties'; and from the norm of the 'responsibility to protect' (R2P), elaborated and advocated by the International Commission on Intervention and State Sovereignty (ICISS).²²

As a result, the four characteristics of a sovereign—territory, authority, population, and independence—spelled out in the 1934 Montevideo Convention on the Rights and Duties of States have been complemented by another, a modicum of respect for human rights. Sovereignty has become contractual or conditional rather than absolute. The basic idea of the R2P principle was that human beings should count more than the rigid sovereignty enshrined in Charter Article 2 (7) with its emphasis on non-intervention in the internal affairs of states. Indeed, with the possible exception of the prevention of genocide in the first years after World War II (WWII), no idea moved faster in the international normative arena than R2P.²³ Or, as Kofi Annan graphically told a 1998 audience at Ditchley Park, 'state frontiers . . . should no longer be seen as a watertight protection for war criminals or mass murderers.'²⁴

The third part of an explanation for the paradox of the UN's contribution to both strengthening and weakening sovereignty is the experience, beginning in the 1990s, that states can be born *and* die—sovereign entities can, in popular language since the early 1990s, 'fail.'²⁵ A number of other euphemisms have arisen—for instance, 'weak' and 'fragile'—while the on-the-ground reality varies from the situation in Somalia,²⁶ where there has been no effective central authority since 1992, to the former Yugoslavia, which from the early 1990s ceased to exist as a unitary state. Charter Article 2 (1) is clear: 'The Organization is based on the principle of the sovereign equality of all its Members.' This essentially means that all states have equal sovereignty, but not that they are equal. Fictions abound in world politics, including the pretense within the UN of treating member states that are not *de facto* sovereign as equal to functioning members, and treating China and Tuvalu on a par in the General Assembly despite their vast inequalities in size and power.

In short, the notion of state sovereignty is questioned more today than in 1945. Borders still are crucial considerations in international relations, but their significance is very different than at the outset of the United Nations.

A Multipolar World and US Hegemony?

One of the difficulties in putting this *Handbook* into production in 2018 was the aftermath of Donald Trump's election as the forty-fifth US president, someone instinctively skeptical of—and arguably hostile to—the value of multilateralism and the rules-based international system for which the United Nations is a keystone, and which the United States had long championed and sustained as its largest contributor.²⁷ A decade ago

when we wrote this introduction, our fourth dominant theme was the pre-eminence of the United States—what former French foreign minister Hubert Védrine had shortly before dubbed the *hyper-puissance*. There is no doubt that the US remains a significant force at the UN, as also are European Union (EU) member states, which collectively contribute more to the world organization than Washington. Nonetheless, the balance of global power in the world has continued to shift southward and eastward over the last ten years.

Major power politics have always dominated the deliberations of the world organization and involved a number of states. Before the unilateral ‘moment’ there was a much longer bilateral one—the bitter East–West divide of the Cold War—and the North–South clashes, especially of the 1960s and the 1970s, provide extensive evidence of power politics within the United Nations. ‘Rising’ and ‘emerging’ powers now lead the call for reforms of international institutions of all types, including those of the UN system. Both individually and through new alignments such as the BRICS (Brazil, Russia, India, China, and South Africa), these countries are engaging more directly in key normative debates about how major institutions could and should contribute to today’s world order. The Group of 20 (G-20) has become a particularly important forum for ‘concert diplomacy’ for such powers—a forum where all members have an effective veto (since G-20 communiqués are agreed by consensus); the UN Secretary-General now invariably participates in the Group’s meetings.

In 2013 the UNDP’s *Human Development Report* estimated that by 2020 the combined economic output of three leading developing countries alone—Brazil, China, and India—would surpass the aggregate production of Canada, France, Germany, Italy, the United Kingdom, and the United States.²⁸

While emerging powers seek more traction internationally, the United States and China remain today the countries with the greatest ‘soft-power’ influence worldwide. The United States has greater military might—its expenditure of \$610 billion in 2016 was more than double that of China. But according to some calculations, China’s economy has now overtaken that of the United States in terms of GDP (based on purchasing power parity) and is not far behind in nominal GDP terms. Beijing’s exercise of soft power is similarly rivaling Washington’s in areas central to the United Nations. President Xi’s speeches at Davos and Geneva in early 2017 emphasized China’s commitment to multilateralism ranging from climate change leadership to supporting the African Union’s (AU) peacemaking capabilities, as well as reminding the world that China now contributes more peacekeepers than the other four permanent members combined. His speeches stood in sharp contrast to those of then recently inaugurated US president Donald Trump who then sought to significantly reduce the capacity of the US State Department, key to the projection of US soft power, and began a retreat from leadership in international institutions that may or may not continue under future US administrations.

In addition, China in recent years has actively championed free trade, a new global ‘One Belt One Road’ Initiative that spans every continent, as well as establishing new institutions such as the Asian Infrastructure Investment Bank. India, while still trailing

China and the United States economically, and with a much smaller ministry of foreign affairs, has large ambitions in soft power projection, and at the time of writing is growing faster than its two larger rivals. Key Latin American countries such as Brazil, Argentina, Mexico, and Colombia are recovering from domestic political and economic woes but also have the potential to play an increasingly important role in both norm generation and operational delivery at the UN. The region still most marginalized by current international institutions is Africa, as suggested by the AU's calls for a continental withdrawal from the International Criminal Court (ICC). A key challenge for the UN Secretary-General, and indeed for the wider community of states, is to give greater 'agency' to African countries and AU institutions in UN forums, and in particular in the UN Security Council, given its predominate focus on African and Middle Eastern conflict situations.

It is unnecessary to exaggerate either the continuing power of the West, or what Amitav Acharya calls the 'hype of the rest,' to see that the role of emerging powers in global governance is changing the political, economic, and institutional landscapes. Whether or not we choose to toss aside the host of labels—including multipolar, a-polar, G-zero, and the list goes on—it is clear that his depiction of a 'multiplex cinema' is an apt image with a choice of plots (ideas), directors (powers), and action (leadership) available to observers under one roof.²⁹

GLOBAL GOVERNANCE

The confluence among these four types of change along with the dominant continuity of an anarchical international system is such that very few contemporary UN watchers can imagine anything like a world government emerging in their lifetimes. We should nonetheless recall that such a notion was at least at the back of the minds of not only world federalists but many of the framers of the UN Charter. While pointing to the rise of 'networks of interdependence,' an earlier formulation of global governance, Harold Jacobson noted a fitting image for the older view of world government in the tapestries in the Palais des Nations in Geneva—the headquarters of the League of Nations and now the UN's European Office. He noted that they 'picture the process of humanity combining into ever larger and more stable units for the purpose of governance—first the family, then the tribe, then the city-state, and then the nation—a process which presumably would eventually culminate in the entire world being combined in one political unit.'³⁰

That dream—Alexander Wendt still argues that 'a world state is inevitable'³¹—of a world government has been replaced by the contemporary idea of 'global governance.'³² Even the most enthusiastic proponents of national interests or those least sympathetic toward the United Nations are cognizant of the need for multilateral efforts in some sectors to address problems that spill beyond borders. 'Governance' refers to purposeful systems and rules or norms that ensure order beyond what occurs 'naturally.' In the

domestic context, governance is usually more than government, implying shared purpose and goal orientation as well as formal authority or police powers.

The origins of this idea in the 1990s reflect an interesting marriage between academic and policy concerns. James Rosenau and Ernst Czempiel's theoretical *Governance without Government* was published in 1992, and the policy-oriented Commission on Global Governance's *Our Global Neighbourhood* was published three years later.³³ The first issue of the journal *Global Governance*, whose subscribers are both scholars and practitioners, also appeared in 1995. And the literature has burgeoned since that time.

Distinctions are not always made between the species of national and global governance.³⁴ For example, UNDP's *Human Development Report 1999* argued that 'Governance does not mean mere government.'³⁵ In a national context, this is perfectly correct because governance is government plus additional non-governmental mechanisms that contribute to order and predictability in problem-solving. For the planet, however, governance essentially is close to the whole story because there is no world government. In many instances, the network of institutions and rules at the global level provides the appearance of partially effective governance, but normally without the actual desired effects.

So global governance is not a supplement to global government but rather a *faute de mieux*. It is a surrogate for transnational authority and enforcement in the contemporary world. However useful as a heuristic device to explain some kinds of complex multilateral cooperation and transnational interactions, the basic question remains: can global governance without a global government adequately address the range of problems faced by humanity in the new millennium?

EVALUATING UN EFFORTS AT PROBLEM-SOLVING

Our point of departure in this *Handbook* is neither defensive nor celebratory—the UN's record should be viewed and analyzed empirically but in context.³⁶ The need to avoid repetition of two world wars and the massive global recession of the 1930s—as well as the failure of the League of Nations—sharply focused the thoughts of those who created the United Nations—beginning with the January 1942 'Declaration by United Nations' and continuing throughout WWII.³⁷ In particular, they had very much in mind what the father of the international relations approach later dubbed 'realism.' E. H. Carr's sweeping interwar analysis of the catastrophic results of ill-considered idealism led to a very different generation of international organizations.³⁸ The basic structures, sketched during World War II and in the first decade or two afterwards, were directed toward pragmatic ends.

But what made the UN's design and establishment so remarkable was its broader ambitions—for human rights on a global scale, for sovereign independence and freedom

and democracy in all parts of the world, for improvements in standards of living worldwide. While such lofty idealism is often derided, more of that original vision has been achieved than is often recognized. No period in human history has seen so many people benefiting from advances in life expectancy, health, education, and living standards as in the UN's lifetime. The organization cannot claim credit for all the progress that has been made, any more than it can be blamed for the lack thereof.

At the same time, the UN's contribution is far from negligible. Humanity undoubtedly would have been in a sadder state of affairs without the world organization's efforts. Successes have arguably surpassed the initial hopes and expectations of the delegates who first gathered at the San Francisco Conference on International Organization in April 1945, and of those attending the opening session of the first General Assembly in London in January 1946. For instance, there has been no world war. Although military spending has broken all records, deaths from war since 1945 have been considerably fewer than those in the first half of the twentieth century. In spite of the Cold War, indeed because it was mostly cold rather than hot, barely a fifth of the twentieth century's 110 million war-related deaths took place in the fifty-five years after the UN's creation, compared with some 85 million prior to the end of World War II.

The *Human Security Report 2005* suggested that the surge of international activities after the end of the Cold War, aimed at stopping ongoing wars and preventing new ones, actually achieved considerable success. Spearheaded by the United Nations, these activities included a sixfold increase in the world body's preventive diplomacy missions and a fourfold increase in its peacemaking missions. This upsurge in international activism coincided with a decrease in crises and wars, despite the real and much publicized failures. While the UN did not act alone, the report asserts that there is evidence from a number of sources that the UN's initiatives were directly linked to quantifiable progress in the reduction and resolution of conflicts—this is, at the least, a plausible proposition. The view from 2018, as this book went to press, looks more mixed. Not only has there been a significant increase in conflict-related deaths in the Middle East and parts of Africa in the last decade, but the UN's largest peacekeeping operations face significant ongoing challenges in restraining intrastate conflicts in the Central African Republic, the Democratic Republic of Congo, Mali, Somalia, and South Sudan—places where there remains scant 'peace to keep'.

The end of colonization and the achievement of sovereign independence came within a decade or two, whereas in 1945 many observers expected that the decolonization process might well take a century. Today 193 countries are members of the UN, compared with the initial fifty-one when the Charter entered into force on 24 October 1945. Almost two-thirds of them now have governments chosen through multiparty elections, a substantial shift from the situation in the early 1960s, although the most recent decade witnessed a reversal of this trend, with a gradual increase in authoritarian regimes. Moreover, Freedom House, a New York-based NGO, asserted in 2017 that populists and autocrats presented a dual risk to global democracy, and noted that according to their index 'global freedom' had declined for eleven consecutive years from 2005 to 2016.³⁹

Economic and social development has seen impressive progress. In developing countries, average life expectancy has increased to double the estimated level of 1920. Child mortality has been lowered by more than three-quarters. Almost nine out of ten of the world's population over the age of eighteen are now literate, and some 91 percent of the world's primary school age children are enrolled in school. Malnutrition has been reduced in all regions of the world, although famines still ravage parts of Africa. Smallpox has been eradicated; and yaws, guinea worm, and polio—a worldwide scourge in the early postwar world—virtually eliminated.

Progress in human rights has been striking, starting with the 1948 approval of the Universal Declaration of Human Rights (UDHR). Beginning in the 1980s, a surge of ratifications of human rights conventions occurred along with increasing implementation of many measures and greater public outrage over abuses. While ratification and implementation are not always correlated, it nonetheless is significant that almost a hundred countries, over half of UN member states, have now ratified six of the seven major human rights instruments, each of which has a committee of experts to monitor implementation; and some of which are supplemented by optional protocols. Moreover, about three-quarters of member states have ratified the International Covenants on Civil and Political Rights (ICCPR) and on Economic, Social and Cultural Rights (ICESCR), and over 80 percent of countries have ratified the International Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Racial Discrimination as well as the Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination Against Women (CEDAW), a kind of international bill of rights for women. However, progress in human rights recognition and protection appeared to have reversed around the time of the UN's seventieth anniversary in 2015. Secretary-General Guterres, in a speech in London in May 2017, warned that 'We are seeing the human rights agenda giving ground to the national sovereignty agendas.'⁴⁰

THREE ANALYTICAL PROBLEMS

The preceding rapid summary is fleshed out in far greater detail in the forty-four following chapters of this *Handbook*. In weighing elements of continuity and change and evaluating the UN's efforts to solve problems in spite of the obvious constraints on its operations, our contributors adopt a variety of perspectives. In examining the evidence in each chapter, we urge readers to keep in mind three distinct analytical problems: defining the nature of change; determining the meaning of success and failure; and tracking the ups and downs of world politics.

Defining 'Change'

The first analytical concern regards the definition of 'change.' Kalevi Holsti's *Taming the Sovereigns* probes the concept of change and ways of measuring it: "These include

change as novelty or replacement, change as addition or subtraction, increased complexity, transformation, reversion, and obsolescence.⁴¹

Change thus can be analyzed in quantitative or qualitative ways. In terms of the growing scale and scope of international secretariats and staff or their budgets, the UN system has expanded exponentially, although it now faces increasing pressure from member states to find savings and efficiencies.

We have already noted some of the data, such as the near quadrupling of the world body's membership. When the United Nations was born in 1945, there were fifty-one members, comprising mostly European and Latin American countries. By 1975, the number of states sitting in the General Assembly had nearly tripled, as decolonization proceeded rapidly in the wake of the mass destruction wrought by WWII, in conjunction with the tide of nationalist independence movements that rippled across what soon became known as 'the Third World' (and now as 'the Global South'). Less than two decades later, the implosion of the Soviet Union (formally the Union of Soviet Socialist Republics, USSR) and Yugoslavia gave birth to twenty new states.

Other figures help illustrate quantitative change, such as the number of peace operations. From the launch of the first peacekeeping operation in 1948 until 1978, only thirteen missions were deployed. For almost a decade thereafter, the Security Council approved no new operations with UN blue helmets because the East–West split made launching such operations politically impossible. New operations resumed in 1988, when the USSR dramatically altered its foreign policy position toward the world body. Since the thawing of the Cold War, the UN has undertaken fifty-eight peacekeeping operations. In mid-2017, for instance, the world body had over 100,000 boots and civilian personnel on the ground in sixteen countries, collectively a larger overseas military presence than any country except the United States.

Change in the intensity of UN activity can also be illustrated with figures for the number of resolutions passed in the Security Council. During the Cold War, from 1946 to 1986, the Council passed 593 resolutions; in less than half that length of time, between 1987 and 2005, this figure amounted to 1,010; and that figure had more than doubled again by mid-2017.

Along with the greater extensiveness of its reach and membership, the UN's budget has grown to meet the ever-increasing demands of a more interdependent and complex world. In 1946, the regular budget was \$21.5 million;⁴² some three decades later, the resources at the disposal of the world body amounted to \$307 million.⁴³ In 2006 the regular budget was \$1.8 billion and in 2017 \$2.7 billion per annum. This regular budget, which is debated endlessly because of its significance for the control and direction of the United Nations, represents only about 20 percent of total spending. In 2017, the peacekeeping budget alone amounted to almost another \$8 billion.

In addition to financial wherewithal, the human resources on which the daily operations of the UN depend also have increased substantially. In 1945, the UN Secretariat itself was a small family while the entire system had some 1,500 people. By 2017, the UN Secretariat had grown substantially and consisted of nearly 40,000 staff; the extended family of the UN system had almost another 60,000 people.

These quantitative indicators of growth, however, should be placed in context. Measured in comparison with the challenges to be overcome or in relationship to national expenditures, the UN's staffing table and cost could be considered almost trivial. Over the seventy-year period, the regular budget of the UN itself appears to have increased well over a hundred times; however, when the figures are adjusted for inflation, the increase corresponds approximately to ten times the 1946 budget. This amounts to an allocation of about \$0.35 per human being alive in 2017; even with the peacekeeping budget included, this figure is only about \$1.40 per person in the world. Even the record-breaking \$10 billion expenditure on UN peacekeeping operations worldwide in 2005 should be placed in perspective; it was the equivalent of about one month of US expenditures in Iraq in that same year.

Writing in the mid-1990s, UN veteran civil servants and analysts Erskine Childers and Brian Urquhart pointed out some relevant comparisons to challenge the commonplace impression of a 'vast, sprawling bureaucracy.' They wrote: 'The entire UN system world-wide, serving the interests of some 5,500,000,000 people in 184 countries [now 7.1 billion in 193 member states], employs no more workers than the civil service in the American state of Wyoming, population 545,000.' They further noted that the budgets for the whole system's regular activities (\$6.5 billion at that time) amounted to about the same as US citizens spent annually on cut flowers and potted plants, while the total worldwide expenditure of the UN system—\$10.5 billion at the time—was three-and-a-half times *less* than the amount that UK citizens spent on alcoholic beverages that year. Moreover, the total budgetary portion allocated to the UN proper (some \$4.1 billion at the time) was no more than the combined budget of the New York City fire and police departments. In another quantitative comparison, Childers and Urquhart noted that 'the *New York Times* consumes more paper in one single Sunday edition than the United Nations consumes in all its documents in a whole year,' which helped to put into perspective the claim of the UN as a 'giant paper factory'.⁴⁴

However, the more intriguing and perhaps controversial questions relate to qualitative change. And here too the changes in the world body have been dramatic since 1945. One qualitative means is to conduct a historical analysis and trace great events. International relations scholars typically trace movements from one historical period to another in terms of wars in general and great power wars in particular. World War II and the founding of the UN itself followed by the Cold War qualify as do many of the crises over the last seven decades in which the world organization has been involved—in security ones from the division of Palestine to the Cuban Missile Crisis and the implosion of the Balkans; in human rights from the UDHR in 1948 to Rwanda's genocide; and in development from the influx of newly independent countries to the Asian financial crisis of 1997–1998, the global financial meltdown of 2007–2008, and the universal agreement by all 193 UN member states on a set of SDGs in 2015. By commission or omission, many such events are viewed as seminal for the UN and as defining moments for international cooperation.

Qualitative change can be defined as difference in kind. Novelty and replacement are types of qualitative change. The presumption is of rupture, or a clear break between what once was and what currently is.⁴⁵ To that extent, we are looking for discontinuities, when new forms replace old ones, which is pretty much the story of the

United Nations—including, for instance, the creation of peacekeeping and the return to peace enforcement alongside human security; the introduction of gender and other types of human rights mainstreaming; the switch from a focus on economic growth to human development; the change from solely protecting the environment to sustainable development.

Holsti notes that change is quite different for someone playing today's stock market compared to those of us trying to understand change in international relations where recent events are not of interest unless they have a demonstrable effect on how diplomatic, military, or humanitarian work is actually done. 'This is the Hegelian and Marxist problem: at what point,' he asks, 'does quantitative change lead to qualitative consequences?'⁴⁶ In other words, we can also characterize as 'new' a tipping point⁴⁷ at which quantitative change is so substantial that it constitutes something qualitatively 'new'.

Many of the arguments about the shifts that have occurred over the last twenty-five years about the nature of humanitarian action, for example, are claims that the overall environment, the relationships among actors, the principles, and the process of delivery of relief and protection of human beings have become more complex.⁴⁸ In many respects, the sum of such changes in quantitative trends have combined in such a way as to have 'system effects,'⁴⁹ the equivalent of qualitative change. The growing involvement of states, for instance, has had a series of important consequences on the organization of humanitarian action. The use of the military for human protection purposes is undoubtedly the clearest example.

In many instances, the contemporary international order is in turmoil—or 'in disarray' in the words of Richard Haass.⁵⁰ The mere quantity of developments may strike readers—it certainly does the editors—as the equivalent of qualitative change. In presenting his reform proposals to the General Assembly in March 2006, Secretary-General Annan summarized: 'Today's United Nations is vastly different from the Organization that emerged from the San Francisco conference more than 60 years ago.'⁵¹ In short, he was pointing to the obvious—which his successors, Ban Ki-moon and António Guterres, have done as well—namely a significant shake-up in the way that the UN does business is essential to keep pace with the significantly altered circumstances over seven decades after its founding.

Determining 'Success' and 'Failure'

Similar complications arise and constitute a second analytical problem for readers who may be struggling to decide whether international cooperation through particular institutions has been a 'success' or a 'failure.' In this effort, they should keep in mind the oft-ignored distinction between the 'two United Nations'⁵²—one being the forum in which states make decisions, and the other being the international civil service. Which UN is behind what is viewed as a success or failure, and to what extent? Both of these UNs, warts and all, are woven throughout this *Handbook* as in most commentaries on the organization.

The success or failure of the ‘first’ UN depends upon governments’ perceptions of their vital interests and the accompanying political will, or lack thereof, to move ahead within a multilateral framework and devote adequate resources to accomplish a given task. It is this United Nations that is most often the locus of evaluation by the public and scholars alike.

But throughout the pages of this *Handbook* we show that the ‘second’ UN is capable, under certain circumstances, of leadership and influence that alter international outcomes. We maintain that individuals matter—for international secretariats as for all human endeavors. Success or failure in implementing policy is, of course, not independent of governments, resources, and political support. Yet there is more room for maneuver and autonomy by members of the international civil service—at the top and throughout secretariats—particularly in the intellectual and advocacy realms, than is often supposed.

The old adage comes to mind here—success has numerous parents, but failure is an orphan. States are often unwilling to dilute their sovereignty through multilateral cooperation and diplomacy, but rarely are they willing to blame themselves for breakdowns in international order and society. The ‘first’ UN has a convenient scapegoat in the ‘second’ UN, and vice versa. The Irish man of letters, former politician and UN official Conor Cruise O’Brien, described the spectacle as ‘sacred drama.’ As such, he undoubtedly is correct in noting that ‘its truths are not literal truths, and its power not a material power.’⁵³

The stage for the drama by these two United Nations has, over the last seven decades, also become crowded with a diversity of further actors.⁵⁴ States are the dominant players in the UN, and national interests have not receded as the basis for making decisions; and secretariats, created and funded by states, make a difference. However, there is substantial evidence for the ideational and operational impact of what is called the ‘third’ UN—or perhaps the ‘complementary’ UN.⁵⁵ This consists in a host of important players who are part of a parallel world of independent experts and consultants whose job descriptions include research, policy analysis, and idea-mongering. They work along with NGOs, the private sector, the media, and other non-state actors. These voices too appear in many of our chapters because they are playing increasingly prominent roles in UN forums as well as in field operations.

These distinctions are consequential. Deciding who is responsible for what portion of the blame for failure or what contribution to success is an increasingly complex task—for our readers, as for our authors. It is particularly salient for government and foundation policymakers faced with pressures to attribute causality in achieving outcomes and impact through international institutions, at a time of competing demand for resources.

The UN’s Changing Fortunes in World Politics

The third variety of analytical problem addresses a common oversight: too many observers forget the ebb and flow of world politics. In trying to wrap their minds around the previous two problems, an additional complicating factor is a pattern of reactions to

experiments with international organization—high hopes followed by disillusionment, which in turn influences attitudes to and the performance of the United Nations.⁵⁶ In the past, however, the disappointment often sets in after a war or major cataclysm accompanied by the collapse of institutions—for example, the Concert of Europe or the League of Nations. Even without US participation in the latter, for example, the withdrawal by other important states (Brazil, Japan, Germany, and the USSR) took place over a decade and a half. While member states have withdrawn from some UN specialized agencies, none has done so from the UN itself.

In the post-Cold War era, however, the disillusionment/euphoria roller coaster seems to be accelerating, with highs and lows reached with greater frequency. Because the UN's business often is tied to this morning's headlines, maintaining some historical perspective is a challenge. The changing fortunes of the UN are continual—sometimes it is viewed as an essential player in international society, and then suddenly it is marginalized.

It is essential, for instance, in evaluating the debate of the 1990s about humanitarian intervention and multilateralism to search for historical baselines, even in the recent past, against which subsequent changes can be gauged. Shortly after the 1991 Gulf War and the allied efforts in Iraqi Kurdistan, the word 'renaissance' was ubiquitous. Apparently, there was nothing that the UN could not do. However, by 1994 there was nothing that it could do to halt the murder of 800,000 people in Rwanda's nightmare. From that nadir, 1999 witnessed contrasting interventions by the international community of states in East Timor and Kosovo, respectively with and without UN approval. Then following Washington's and London's decisions in March 2003 to wage war in Iraq without explicit Security Council approval, the world organization once again confronted widespread disillusionment: depending on one's views, either there was nothing it could do to halt US hegemony, or there was nothing it could do to enforce decisions against the rogue regime of Saddam Hussein. Even seasoned observers seemed out of breath in attempting to gauge exactly the nature of the world organization's standing—not just in the United States but in 'new' and 'old' Europe, and virtually everywhere.

In this regard and as we head toward the seventy-fifth anniversary of the UN's establishment, it is worthwhile to revisit the lead-up to the sixtieth, for example, as a reflection of a distinctly ahistorical perspective. A good place to begin is the dramatic imagery of the Secretary-General Kofi Annan's famous 'fork in the road' speech,⁵⁷ which formed the basis for convening the High-level Panel on Threats, Challenges and Change (HLP).⁵⁸ He urged that 'the UN must undergo the most sweeping overhaul in its 60-year history.'⁵⁹ The actual outcome of the September 2005 UN World Summit inevitably failed to live up to such high expectations. But neither were the cynics who predicted a dismal failure proved right. The outcome and the initial follow-up indicated the tenacity of the world organization with its ability to survive, grow, and adapt; but it achieves progress only through historical cycles of modest adaptation and change. António Guterres appears to have absorbed this lesson early in his term, with his initial 2017–18 reform proposals being modest but practical in scope.

Its member states, throughout this process, continue to cling to the prerogatives of sovereignty while pursuing a predictable pattern. They find reasons to characterize the most incremental reforms in radiant hues; but they then begin again to bemoan the state of the world organization and assert that profound changes in the planet's situation necessitate sweeping structural transformations.

Despite these rhetorical sleights of hand, the UN's advances, while sometimes checkered, continue. The world body's forms adapt to fit new functions. Whether through abstract advances in norm-setting or concrete gains in the areas of conflict resolution, poverty alleviation, human rights, and democratization, the world organization—the first UN, the second UN, and the third UN—does help to make the planet a little more habitable and hospitable.

We are reminded of a cautionary quip attributed to Dag Hammarskjöld: 'The UN was not created to take humanity to heaven, but to save it from hell.' Our view, which is reflected throughout virtually all of the chapters in this *Handbook*, is that the UN system will need to adapt its role if many of the current threats to human survival and human dignity are to be adequately addressed. Solutions to global problems will increasingly involve a range of actors, sectors, and international institutions. The UN of the future may well therefore do less operationally itself, instead serving as a 'legitimiser' at the apex of multi-actor partnerships of increasing complexity. One reason that we are not in the netherworld already is the existence of the United Nations. Indeed, it has become such an embedded part of today's world order that it is taken for granted. 'We are barely conscious of the continuing stabilizing role it plays in setting the broad parameters for the conduct of international relations,' Australia's former prime minister Kevin Rudd points out. 'If the UN one day disappears, or more likely just slides into neglect, it is only then that we would become fully away of the gaping hole this would leave in what remained of the post-war order.'⁶⁰

ABOUT THIS BOOK

In putting together this collection of essays, we seek a better understanding of the origins, history, contributions, problems, and prospects of the world organization and the UN system as a whole. This, we hope, could result in improved strategies and tactics in the coming decades of the turbulent twenty-first century. A better comprehension of the deficiencies of the current generation of international organizations could lead to the identification of appropriate remedies.

When we agreed to edit this *Handbook*, our initial task was to find a knowledgeable group of authors to write about the vast range of topics in the forty-four chapters that follow this one. Brief biographies are found in the list of contributors at the beginning of this book. Adding to the value of this collection is the fact that all of the contributors have written extensively about the subject matter of their chapters or worked in a related field; many have done both.

At the outset of this *Handbook*, readers will find a lengthy list of abbreviations. The UN's discourse—like that of its member governments and the bevy of NGOs that follows its deliberations—is bedeviled with acronyms and abbreviations. Institutions and parts of them, along with individual peace operations, treaties, and conferences, are almost always referred to by their initials. This alphabet soup may be off-putting, but it is a linguistic reality. In order to save space, contributors use these short-hands extensively, and so readers may need to consult the list with some frequency. In order to understand better the complicated interagency relationships that are present in every chapter, the reader may wish to consult the organizational diagram of the UN system in Appendix 2.

Readers looking to pursue in-depth additional reading and research will find a solid intellectual resource in the lengthy endnotes, and we have listed in Appendix 1 a handful of useful published works for each chapter. The texts of the UN Charter, the Statute of the International Court of Justice (ICJ), and the UDHR can also be found in Appendices 3, 4, and 5. Resolutions of the UN's principal organs are cited by number and date. Such texts along with many primary documents are readily available at www.un.org. In designing this new edition we have dropped a few topics from the first edition and added new ones. In the pages that follow, we explain the logic and sequencing of our choices and briefly examine the contents of each chapter as they pertain to our theme of continuity and change.

Chapter 2, 'Origins of the United Nations' by Justin Morris, is a most welcome addition to this volume. We felt that an understanding of the UN's creation, which occurred while World War II still raged, provides an essential backdrop to the UN story over the last seven decades. Morris brings to life the public and private diplomacy that characterized the UN's founding San Francisco conference and the preparations that led to it. This chapter, and the historical reflections in many chapters that follow, bring much needed context to the volume. As editors, we share Andrew Hurrell's lament about much contemporary social science, and its affection for and affliction of 'relentless presentism.'⁶¹

Part II: Theoretical Frameworks

This *Handbook* begins with overviews of the ways that international relations scholars and public international lawyers view the United Nations. Political and legal approaches provide two of the main disciplinary tools for analyses of international organization. The two approaches are undoubtedly present in the educational backgrounds of many readers of this *Handbook*. They also provide the main vehicles for teaching in university classrooms where the United Nations is often a core subject. Teaching about the economic and social work of the UN is also frequently informed by economics and social anthropology, and you will find those disciplines deployed in some of this *Handbook's* subsequent chapters.

In Chapter 3, 'Political Approaches,' Michael Barnett and Martha Finnemore draw on their own substantial writing and teaching in order to provide a *tour d'horizon* of

theoretical approaches that have dominated the study of international organizations, including the UN, over the last half century. Barnett and Finnemore explore how analysts have conceived the ways that the UN not only regulates the existing activities of states and other actors but also helps to weave the fabric of international society. For them, the world organization makes a difference to member states—large and small, powerful and weak. The chapter makes clear the twentieth century's various schools of thought developed to understand the behavior and misbehavior of international institutions. Barnett and Finnemore conclude by making a plea for scholars to work harder to understand the nuts and bolts of influence within IGOs—especially what we earlier described as the first, second, and third United Nations.

In Chapter 4, 'Legal Perspectives,' José E. Alvarez presents readers with an overview based on his own teaching and research at several prominent law schools. He addresses how international organizations with a global reach have changed the mechanisms and reasoning behind the making, implementation, and enforcement of international law. The overwhelming tradition of positivism among international lawyers, in his view, does not do justice to the complex and largely beneficial changes resulting from the UN system and its increased importance as 'lawmakers' since WWII. Alvarez is not among the international lawyers who are skeptical about the value of the United Nations creating both 'hard' and 'soft' law. At the same time, he notes the disappearance of what had been an almost religious faith in law and multilateral approaches characteristic of the legal culture among those who helped design the world organization in the 1940s.

In Chapter 5, 'Evolution in Knowledge and Norms,' Leon Gordenker and Christer Jönsson bring to bear their combined three-quarters of a century in classrooms around the world to explore what has constituted new 'knowledge' about international organization in general and the UN in particular since WWII. Gordenker and Jönsson examine the different ways the UN system seeks to disseminate information about the world organization, and how it seeks to manage knowledge. They also try to examine how the proverbial woman in the street has responded to different levels of knowledge over the years, and note the continuing public support for the UN in almost all regions of the world. They argue for unpacking the influences of both the UN of states and the UN of secretariats as a key research challenge, and also for communicating with larger publics as a main civic challenge.

Part III: Principal Organs

The next part of this *Handbook* provides a basic introduction to the six principal organs and to the 'secular pope,' the Secretary-General, and to the elaborate system of financing. The contents of this part are what many people understand as the United Nations: the arenas where the 'first' UN of member states interact and make decisions, and the people who constitute the 'second' UN.

M. J. Peterson's Chapter 6, 'General Assembly,' puts before readers the in-depth knowledge that she has accumulated in writing two oft-cited books on this topic and in three

decades of teaching UN studies. Many praise the ‘world’s parliament,’ and others lambaste it as an ineffectual ‘talk shop.’ The Assembly is, of course, the forum where the sovereign equality of member states is taken very seriously. Indeed, the most prominent change in international relations in the second half of the twentieth century was the liberation of colonized peoples, who now are the citizens of the overwhelming majority of member states sitting behind country name-plates in the Assembly Hall. As there is hardly an issue that is not on its agenda, Peterson argues for a better division of labor with other principal organs and also an opening up of the General Assembly to other, non-governmental, voices. These challenges are clearly on the radar of Secretary-General, António Guterres, but he will likely defer to member states regarding proposals for changes to the agenda of the UN’s principal organs.

In Chapter 7, ‘Security Council,’ Sebastian von Einsedel and David M. Malone bring to bear both their extensive practitioner experience and their authoritative edited and authored works on the UN’s most powerful principal organ. The Council is responsible for determining what constitutes a threat to international peace and security, and often what international responses will or will not result. This organ’s first forty-five years during the Cold War are an essential part of the story, but the four issues that we outlined earlier as elements in a substantially changed landscape—new threats, new actors, new notions of sovereignty, and a more multipolar world—are all very much present in von Einsedel and Malone’s discussion of the post-1990 Security Council. They review the success or failure of UN peace operations and the array of twenty-first century challenges, from the war in Iraq to the number of recent and violent civil wars. In essence, the Council still functions as a club of great powers—with the P-5 still united on many issues, but on issues such as Syria and the Ukraine remains divided between a P-3 (a Western mixture of the US’s preponderant power with inputs by France and the United Kingdom) and a P-2 (the former superpower Russia and the rising power China).

In Chapter 8, ‘Economic and Social Council,’ Gert Rosenthal draws upon his experience as a senior practitioner—as a Foreign Minister of his country, and as a UN ambassador, which included service as ECOSOC president—to explore the workings of what may be the most critiqued principal organ. Besides twice increasing its size, the current fifty-four-member ECOSOC has, as Rosenthal notes, been criticized from the outset for its inability to pull together the various moving parts of an increasingly dispersed and complex UN development system. It is unclear how the international system should respond to a growing and complicated set of challenges to survival and dignity. However, ECOSOC’s main weaknesses—an ambiguous relationship with the General Assembly, a lack of focus, the non-binding nature of its decisions, and an incapacity to attract high-level policymakers to its meetings—are unlikely to change easily, although the introduction of the High-level Political Forum is beginning to raise its profile and ministerial-level participation. The proposal put forward by numerous groups to create an economic and social equivalent of the Security Council remains on the drawing boards of diplomatic architects rather than under construction.

Ralph Wilde’s Chapter 9, ‘Trusteeship Council,’ examines a principal organ whose work was essential to WWII’s settlement, which involved establishing procedures for the

independence of the left-over colonies from the defeated powers of World War I (WWI). This body accomplished its work so well that it should have been dismantled in 1994 when the last UN trusteeship, Palau, became independent. It now no longer meets and costs member states nothing, and awaits a future Charter amendment to close it down *de jure* as well *de facto*. Wilde details the UN's pioneering efforts at facilitating the decolonization of trust territories, one part of the story of the world organization's contribution to the processes of self-determination for peoples in Africa, Asia, Latin America, the Caribbean, and the Middle East. The work of the Trusteeship Council was linked to what arguably may have been the most important political change of the twentieth century. Paradoxically, the UN thus has contributed to reinforcing the traditional foundation of sovereignty for newly constituted states at the same time that it has contributed to its erosion, or at least redefinition.

In Chapter 10, 'International Court of Justice,' Charlotte Ku brings her wealth of expertise on the subject to explore what journalists commonly call the 'World Court.' Examining in detail the slow but steady growth of the global rule of law, she begins with the juridical experiment of the League of Nations, the inaccurately labeled Permanent Court of International Justice (PCIJ). Charter Article 93 is clear that 'All Members of the United Nations are *ipso facto* parties to the Statute of the International Court of Justice.' Ku points out that the ICJ in many ways goes against the grain of contemporary international relations and the proliferation of actors because Article 34 of its Statute specifies that 'Only states may be parties in cases before the Court.' While the ICJ's caseload has increased slightly—until the 1990s, the fifteen judges handed down a ruling on only about a case and a half a year—its caseload remains light due to the lack of compulsory jurisdiction.

In Chapter 11, 'Secretariat: Independence and Reform,' James O. C. Jonah's and Amy Scott Hill's chapter reflects their first-hand experience as international civil servants who have worked in a wide range of UN Secretariat departments. Taking as a point of departure the Nobelmaire principles formulated under the League of Nations and repeated by its successor, Jonah and Hill stress the critical importance of independent and competent staff and the efforts championed especially by the second Secretary-General, Dag Hammarskjöld. They point out that diplomats and national politicians at times scapegoat the UN bureaucracy instead of acknowledging their own feeble political will. They equally identify times the UN Secretariat has failed to perform or hold itself accountable. The authors provide an overview of recent efforts to reform the Secretariat, and see the restoration and reinvigoration of the international civil service as the *sine qua non* of a strengthened United Nations in the new millennium.

Edward Newman's Chapter 12, 'Secretary-General,' puts before readers his analytical experience and writing about the Secretariat's most senior official, what the Charter calls its 'Chief Administrative Officer.' Newman explores the intricacies of trying to perform what is not hyperbole to describe—in the words of the first Secretary-General, Trygve Lie—as 'the most impossible job in the world.' While the Secretary-General is not a principal organ, a separate chapter is devoted to this topic because dealing with the multiple and multiplying challenges of the contemporary world is in the small print in the

job description of the UN's head. This book went into production early in the mandate of the ninth incumbent, António Guterres. His selection process was more transparent than that of his predecessors, and it may set a precedent for a more merit-based and transparent process in other international appointment processes. This result appeared to have happened in the May 2017 appointment of WHO Director-General Tedros Adhanom Ghebreyesus. It may well also impact the World Bank and International Monetary Fund (IMF), whose top jobs have long been reserved for US and European nationals.

In Chapter 13, 'Financing,' Jeffrey Laurenti's in-depth familiarity—gathered in a number of capacities with private organizations working to foster multilateral cooperation—is obvious as he spells out the proverbial bottom line of the world organization's ability to act. At first the topic of UN financing could appear humdrum, but some of the most contentious political struggles that have wracked and at times imperiled the world organization have centered on its financing. Because they are a fundamental metric of power, Laurenti outlines why it is hardly surprising that the major donors want their preferences heard—with the demands of the forty-fifth US president, Donald Trump, weighing heavily on the world organization as this volume goes to press. That the UN is not a world government is perhaps most obvious because it levies no taxes and—with the partial exception of some UN funds, programs, and specialized agencies such as WIPO—has no independent sources of finance; it relies on the assessed and voluntary contributions of its member governments. The clash between the realities of power, especially domestic politics in its largest contributors, are reflected in the recurrent battles over the parlous state of the UN's financial health.

Part IV: Relationships with Other Actors

The fourth part of this *Handbook* provides an overview of how the world organization relates to the other actors whose activities are critically important to the functioning and performance of the UN system, either because they work with, or in opposition to, the world body.

In Chapter 14, 'Bretton Woods Institutions,' Ngaire Woods's intimate knowledge of the Washington-based international financial institutions (IFIs) is very much in evidence as she spells out the contributions and power of these institutions that are *de jure* part of the UN system but *de facto* not. The power and procedures of the IFIs can at times overshadow the UN's efforts to foster economic and social development. Criticism is not in short supply. The far greater resources of the IFIs are one element, but perhaps their most distinguishing characteristic consists of the weighted voting procedures that differ from the principle of sovereign equality in such UN bodies as the General Assembly and the governing councils of UN specialized agencies, funds, and programs. In Washington, and despite a very modest adjustment of voting rights in favor of emerging powers, the voice of the 'haves' (the main financial backers) is louder and more influential than that of the 'have nots' (the recipients of World Bank and IMF financial resources).

In Chapter 15, 'World Trade Organization,' Rorden Wilkinson draws on his experience and writing about international trade and finance to detail the historical journey from an aborted attempt in the late 1940s to have a third institution, the proposed International Trade Organization, join the World Bank and IMF. Instead, for almost fifty years the General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade regulated international commerce, to be finally supplanted by the World Trade Organization (WTO) in 1995. Although not part of the UN system, it participates in virtually all forums and affects many of the UN organizations working in this arena; it too thus is an essential part of the story of the contemporary United Nations.

In moving beyond the UN proper, Waheguru Pal Singh Sidhu's Chapter 16, 'Regional Organizations,' draws on his own substantial writing about regional security to detail the many organizations that have become indispensable UN partners, and at times rivals. He begins his analysis with the provisions of the Charter's Chapter VIII, 'Regional Arrangements.' The actual implementation of many Security Council decisions in the post-Cold War era would have been a dead letter without subcontracting to these institutions—indeed, all of the more robust peace operations in the post-Cold War world have included some form of involvement by regional arrangements. Sidhu delineates their pluses and minuses in comparison with the universal United Nations. A key challenge for future resort to regional entities will be whether AU institutions can secure the funding and capability to effectively address the many continuing conflicts on that continent.

In Chapter 17, 'Formal and Informal Groups,' Monica Herz spells out the use of a variety of mechanisms within both UN negotiations and conflict-management efforts in which the universal intergovernmental organization relies on smaller groups to advance either discussions or mediation. From the outset, regional groupings have been used to identify representatives for election to limited membership bodies in the UN proper—for instance, the Security Council, ECOSOC, and Human Rights Council—albeit the final choice has rested with the entire UN membership—and similar procedures exist elsewhere throughout the system. A similar principle characterizes various groupings of 'friends,' the representatives on which work behind the scenes to nudge forward difficult topics ranging from individual armed conflicts to more sweeping topics like R2P.

In Chapter 18, 'Nongovernmental Organizations,' Mike Schroeder and Paul Wapner's research on non-state actors comes to the fore as they describe how the UN's approaches to NGOs and civil society have evolved. The appearance of this important element in what we called the 'third UN' began with the vision of Charter Article 71, an early effort to reflect in the organization's deliberations the reality of the Charter's Preamble in its opening lines, 'We the Peoples of the United Nations.' There have always been tensions between the UN's state-centered character and its aspiration to represent all the globe's citizens. Many other chapters point to specific instances of inputs from NGOs—in global conferences, as executing agents for projects, as monitors and advocates—but in addition Schroeder and Wapner's raise issues of legitimacy and accountability that arise from involving civil society in intergovernmental deliberations and programs.

Craig N. Murphy's Chapter 19, 'Private Sector,' brings to the fore his lifelong teaching and analytical reflections on international political economy. He provides an extensive discussion of the for-profit sector's growing involvement—after being held at arm's length for much of the UN's first half century—not only as a lobby but as an active partner in international cooperation. Murphy explores how the business world complements the work of non-profit civil society and international foundations. As part of globalization's continuing march, the growth of transnational corporations (TNCs) has been at least as dramatic as that of civil society, and they will both likely play a crucial role in the realization of the SDGs.

In Chapter 20, 'Media,' Barbara Crossette's career as a journalist is evident in her treatment of a surprisingly understudied part of the puzzle of UN affairs, namely how it interacts with and is reflected in the treatment by print, visual, audio, and digital media. While it is commonplace to point to the 'CNN effect' (or the 'BBC effect'), Crossette is less impressed by evidence of such influence. She is more concerned to parse the various parts of the UN's public relations machinery and explore what makes 'news' for reporters covering the world organization. Here she is careful to trace substantial changes over time—part technological, part political—that for a while rendered the UN of little news value. That changed with the end of the Cold War and the escalating number of crises on the world organization's daily agenda. She suggests that the UN itself try to set agendas rather than reacting to events as it has in the past, a strategic communications task that was on his agenda when Secretary-General Guterres assumed his mandate in January 2017.

Part V: International Peace and Security

Reflecting the UN's birth amidst the smoldering ashes of WWII, the fifth part of this *Handbook* is designed to provide the essential details—in addition to the dynamics of the principal organs discussed previously—of the organization's original *raison d'être*. The delegates from the fifty states gathered in San Francisco had in mind the tragedies of interstate war and the memory that WWI had supposedly been 'the war to end all wars.' They were anticipating responding to future threats of aggression and were seeking to maintain international peace and security in what can only be, with any historical perspective, a Sisyphean task to 'save succeeding generations from the scourge of war.'

This part begins with Chapter 21, 'Arms Control and Disarmament,' by Keith Krause whose own research and teaching has focused on the control of various types of arms. The failure of the League of Nations did not discourage UN work in this area—indeed, after Hiroshima and Nagasaki, it seemed imperative. In fact, the very first resolution of the General Assembly dealt with it. This unheralded part of the world organization's work has in many ways required an on-going adaptation of UN structures, and Krause points to disarmament efforts (including the Conference on Disarmament and the International Atomic Energy Agency), the Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty, the Chemical Weapons Convention, the UN Special Commission in Iraq, and more recent

efforts to tackle the problems of antipersonnel land mines and small arms. Krause does not downplay the interests of major powers as circumscribing the UN's possible contributions, but nonetheless sees intergovernmental institutions as possessing a limited but valuable autonomy to shape these interests as well as to frame the normative structures within which these interests are pursued.

In Chapter 22, 'Peaceful Settlement of Disputes and Conflict Prevention,' Rama Mani and Richard Ponzio bring together their combined practical and analytical experience on the issues spelled out or implicit in Charter Chapter VI, 'Pacific Settlement of Disputes.' Continuity and change come together in an unusual way. They examine the array of arrows that traditionally have been in the UN Secretary-General's quiver—negotiation, fact-finding, mediation, good offices, conciliation, and arbitration—along with some more recent inventions, including international tribunals and regional arrangements. As a result of leadership by Secretaries-General Boutros-Ghali and Annan, the 'culture of prevention' became one of the world organization's main rhetorical emphases—an important contemporary interpretation of Chapter VI—and António Guterres pledged to make prevention his legacy.

In Chapter 23, 'Peace Operations,' Richard Gowan admirably tackles a huge topic, helping readers understand the essential dimensions of this UN 'invention.' 'Chapter VI and a half' is a term often used to describe the peculiar military efforts that go beyond the peaceful resolution of disputes in Chapter VI but fall short of the war-fighting enforcement in Chapter VII, 'Action with Respect to Threats to the Peace, Breaches of the Peace, and Acts of Aggression.' Most of Gowan's chapter is devoted to analyzing the impact of contemporary UN peace operations as part of a comprehensive strategy to achieve sustainable peace. Here, 'success' and 'failure' are in the eye of the beholder, or a subjective judgment from the evaluator as to how and when peace is 'sustainable.' Gowan examines peacekeeping as it interacts with peacemaking, peace enforcement, and post-conflict peacebuilding—indeed, the standard character of second-generation operations was multi-functionality, a novelty in comparison with traditional peacekeeping during the Cold War. Also prominent has been close cooperation with regional organizations, including 'hybrid' operations in Africa. Success is more likely after non-ethnic wars, in countries with relatively high development levels, and when UN peace operations and substantial financial assistance are available to sustain peace in the long term. Sadly, these conditions have rarely characterized UN operations in the last two decades.

In Chapter 24, 'Sanctions,' George A. Lopez extends the consideration of enforcement to the least forceful provisions of Chapter VII. As a practitioner and scholar, he has been intimately associated with this topic. During the UN's first forty-five years, the Security Council employed sanctions only twice—against Southern Rhodesia in 1966 and South Africa in 1977. Starting in the late 1980s, however, the Council adopted dozens of sanctions resolutions levied against sixteen distinct targets, including states and non-state actors. Partially as a result of the experience—and certainly the negative humanitarian consequences of sanctions in Iraq—the Council began to favor deploying selective and targeted sanctions. What are now labeled 'smart sanctions' thus

bear little resemblance to the poorly-monitored, often overly-blunt, measures imposed in the early 1990s, which often were then manipulated by targeted regimes to get their populations to ‘rally around the flag.’ The evidence of the effectiveness of such targeted sanctions remains inconclusive,

In Chapter 25, ‘Humanitarian Intervention and the Responsibility to Protect,’ Ramesh Thakur applies his own extensive analytical experience to one of the most controversial topics of recent decades—the use of military force to protect human beings. Humanitarian intervention is the extension of fourth-century arguments by St. Augustine and seventeenth-century ones by Hugo Grotius. Thakur views the current manifestation of ‘the responsibility to protect’ as a clear departure from the earlier concept of ‘a right to humanitarian intervention,’ which had been rejected by many developing countries. He begins his essay with an examination of humanitarian interventions by colonial powers in the nineteenth century. He then proceeds to the significant and recent normative development that the rights of human beings sometimes trump those of the states in which they live. In spite of Charter Article 2 (7) and basic continuities in the Westphalian system, the redefinition of sovereignty—to include conditions of respect for human rights and of the principle of non-intervention when a state is unable or unwilling to protect its citizens from mass murder and war crimes—suggested a potential fundamental shift in UN decision-making and international relations. However, after being linked by some states to the overthrow of the Libyan leader in 2011, R2P was again shrouded in controversy. Despite being referenced in a plethora of Security Council resolutions since 2011, its normative advance may or may not continue.

In Chapter 26, ‘Peacebuilding,’ Roland Paris’s extensive background in writing, teaching, and more recently government service, are obvious in his treatment of the UN’s efforts to move beyond violence once peace finally breaks out. The proliferation of civil wars has presented a substantial challenge to the UN system in trying to rebuild state capacity in countries ripped apart by the new threats and actors described earlier. Paris describes the trial-and-error experiments of helping mend war-torn countries in the 1990s. He sees a process of learning by which market democracy is no longer, if it ever was, seen as a miracle cure. There are no quick fixes because peacebuilding requires long-lasting and intrusive forms of international involvement in post-conflict countries, the kinds of commitment that are rare among donors. Among the more significant other lessons from UN efforts are the importance of building effective domestic institutions as well as the requirement for more effective coordination among the diverse array of international actors. The establishment in 2006 of the Peacebuilding Commission and other UN architecture was a step in the right direction, but nonetheless the first decade of experience suggests that the coordination glass is still quite empty.

Jane Boulden’s Chapter 27, ‘Terrorism,’ provides readers with an overview of UN efforts that began decades before that now fateful date of September 11, 2001, which many observers view as having fundamentally altered international security calculations. UN deliberations have assumed increased importance with the rise of transnational Jihadist-inspired terrorist movements that have actively targeted UN and other humanitarian workers, rejecting the basic tenets of international humanitarian law. The possibility of

WMDs in the hands of a rogue state or sub-state movement—has also upped the international ante. Boulden discusses the main sticking points in UN discussions, which have led to several important treaties but no definition. The first is captured by the expression ‘your terrorist is my freedom fighter’—that is, many countries view as legitimate armed violence by those fighting for national liberation. The second is whether ‘state terrorism’ should be included in any definition agreed by the vast majority of member states. A further issue is the risk that human rights will suffer under the ‘Global War on Terrorism’ (GWOT). At the time of writing, US President Trump was seeking a blanket ban on entry into the United States from a number of Muslim-majority countries, citing terrorism concerns.

Peter Romaniuk’s Chapter 28, ‘Crime and Criminal Justice,’ probes a little-known but increasingly important role of the UN, namely its contribution to combating transnational organized crime (TOC), including illicit traffic in drugs and in human beings as well as money-laundering and endangered species. On the one hand, UN efforts in this arena are based on the Charter and the UDHR and thus are not new. On the other hand, reinterpretations of older conventions are crucial in a world where rapid communications, global financial systems, and ease of transportation place national authorities at a disadvantage in fighting such illicit activity. Even the prosecution of criminal cases assumes extreme complexity when dealing with very varied criminal laws and legal systems. UN efforts have grown over time as TOC has become a major concern of member states, but the world organization’s efforts are both vital but inadequate.

Chapter 29, ‘Cyber Threats,’ is an essential addition to the second edition of this *Handbook*, and Lucas Kello spells out the rapid technological advances and related threats to international peace and security that have pushed this formerly esoteric topic closer to the top of the international security agenda. The guaranteed smooth functioning of computer networks is crucial to contemporary societies—ranging from the maintenance of critical national infrastructure and the delivery of public services to the conduct of elections and the military capabilities of national armed forces. The UN’s role in this area has so far been limited—essentially helping support the capacity of developing countries to defend against cyber attacks (both state-originated and criminal), and tasking an expert committee to explore how the existing legal framework provided by the UN Charter for the international community of states to respond to various types and level of attacks relates to the cyber realm. This issue will almost certainly rise up the UN’s agenda in the future, as the world becomes increasingly networked and vulnerabilities also multiply.

Part VI: Human Rights

The sixth part of this *Handbook* aims to put before readers insights into what many believe to be the most ‘revolutionary’ of UN ideas, international measures to enhance the protection of human rights. The tension—some would say contradiction—is obvious between the respect for fundamental human rights and the Charter’s call in Article 2

(7): ‘Nothing contained in the present Charter shall authorize the United Nations to intervene in matters which are essentially within the domestic jurisdiction of any state.’ Much of the debate revolves around the possible interpretations of ‘essentially.’

In Chapter 30, ‘Human Rights: Norms and Machinery,’ Natalie Samarasinghe’s point of departure is the revolutionary implications of taking human rights seriously, which leads her to identify the all too evident failures as well as the advances secured in international norms and law. It remains the case that the UN system as a whole struggles to move forward with the standard that societies should be governed by a basic respect for human rights and without discrimination on grounds of race, sex, language, or religion. Each of those topics continues to raise hackles in parts of the membership. Samarasinghe does not shy away from examining the tensions inherent in the UN Secretary-General and the High Commissioner for Human Rights using the bully pulpit while remaining mindful of the principles of respect for sovereignty and the value of incremental confidence-building. The replacement of the Commission on Human Rights (CHR) by the Human Rights Council (HRC) in 2006 has been seen as largely positive. The HRC is now in almost permanent session and holds universal periodic reviews (i.e., of each country’s performance) every four years.

The experience and wisdom of Justice Richard Goldstone are clear from Chapter 31, ‘International Criminal Court and Ad Hoc Tribunals.’ He begins from a longer-run perspective of the last century and a half, which for him represents the relatively ‘recent’ experience in formulating a truly global rule of law. This chapter focuses on contemporary international efforts to consolidate and codify significant portions of existing customary international law—through decisions rendered by ad hoc UN tribunals and through the passage of the Rome Statute of the International Criminal Court (ICC). In spite of the ICC facing reluctance and hostility from many major powers, Goldstone views the ICC as a vital development in the emergence of a single model for international criminal justice, a substantial building block for the twenty-first century.

In Chapter 32, ‘Humanitarian Action and Coordination,’ readers find substantial evidence of Jeff Crisp’s extensive exposure to civilian IGOs and NGOs that work to protect and assist human beings caught in the throes of war. This ‘growth industry’—expenditures went from \$2 billion to \$6 billion over the turbulent 1990s, in 2005 were close to \$10 billion, and reached almost \$28 billion in 2016—is illuminated by his depiction of a network of institutions struggling to respond to the spate of what became known as ‘complex humanitarian emergencies.’ Crisp analyzes the history of UN humanitarian action, in both natural and human-made disasters, and he documents the various tensions that arise over jurisdiction and turf as a bevy of UN institutions, and their NGO partners, flock to the scene of contemporary humanitarian emergencies.

Charlotte Bunch’s Chapter 33, ‘Women’s Rights and Gender Integration,’ draws upon her teaching and research into this issue as well as her own active advocacy in virtually all of the UN’s recent normative efforts in this arena. The UN’s visible actions on behalf of women began to be noticed with the preparation for the World Conference of the International Women’s Year in Mexico City in 1975, but they actually started much earlier with endeavors to quantify women’s contributions to economic development.

After exploring the differences between ‘women’ and ‘gender,’ Bunch examines the norms and their institutional manifestations as well as selected UN system efforts to promote women’s rights in development, health, human rights, and peace and security. The creation of UN Women in 2010 was long overdue. Bunch balances her evaluation of how much things have changed for women and girls over the last six decades with a criticism of the world organization itself whose moral authority is weakened by failing to live up to its own high standards in the recruitment and promotion of women.

In Chapter 34, ‘Minorities and Indigenous Peoples,’ Maivân Clech Lâm begins her essay by reminding readers of the horrors of World War II and the catastrophic results of having ignored minority rights during the previous interwar years. Her own writing and teaching about critical race theory provide an excellent vantage point for her clear delineation of the ways that international human rights law seek to address both personal and collective vulnerabilities. UN efforts have aimed to ensure that minorities are protected and can participate fully in the dominant societies in which they live, while the cultures of indigenous peoples also require protection from the societies around them, and which indeed, in all too many cases, have almost obliterated them. For the latter, globalization has both threatened their existence and made it possible for others to become aware of their plight.

In Chapter 35, ‘Human Security,’ Christopher K. Penny provides not only a fitting introduction to this crucial and increasingly salient policy topic but also a transition to the next part of this *Handbook*. From the point of view of international relations and law, respectively, he spells out the benefits of recalibrating the definition of ‘security’ to emphasize human beings instead of states. Indeed, human security is firmly entrenched in today’s language of world politics and reflects the UN’s role in advancing and sometimes enforcing new international norms that place the individual—rather than only its member states—at the core of modern understandings of international security. However human security is defined, it has certainly been enhanced by the work of the United Nations. But Penny also does not shy away from indicating the analytical costs arising from casting the net too widely, which risks diminishing the policy traction of the concept.

Part VII: Development

The purpose of the seventh part of this *Handbook* is to introduce some of the UN’s work to foster economic and social development, and to improve the prospects for what is increasingly and universally called ‘sustainable development.’ While the maintenance of international peace and security was the *raison d’être* for the world organization’s founding, its emphases and actual work have changed substantially over time. While development was originally framed mainly as a way to ensure peace, the rapid pace of decolonization resulted in a change in priorities for the world organization—development was an essential objective in and of itself for newly decolonized countries and other non-industrialized countries in the Global South that had been independent for some

time. The contributions of the UN to development thinking and practice are seriously understudied.⁶² Indeed, economic and social development—for example, the activities in such sectors as food, industry, and education—could be the subject of an entire handbook. Here, however, we content ourselves with an overview of several essential current topics that have clear transnational dimensions and also are part of the challenge of development. Readers should, of course, be mindful that other chapters in this *Handbook* deal with aspects of economic and social advancement; but the space limitations of a single volume prevent consideration of such specialized aspects as agriculture, industry, education, infrastructure, energy, and the list goes on.

Jacques Fomerand's long UN career and experience as an analyst and instructor is complemented by Dennis Dijkzeul's in Chapter 36, 'UN Development System.' Their chapter begins Part VII by exploring the historical and ongoing intricacies of cooperation across the various specialized agencies, programs, and funds that constitute the UN's extended development system. They point to structural difficulties—separate funding and governing structures in institutions located across the globe—that are mixed with conventional bureaucratic concerns and the realities of misaligned institutional incentives and turf-consciousness. They draw attention to the autonomy of the World Bank and the IMF—whose resources and annual disbursements dwarf those of the entire UN system—that make the Bretton Woods institutions distinct from the UN system, even if the organizational chart includes them as linked components; and over the last decade, closer working relations have developed between the UN and the IFIs. In thinking through the challenges of the Charter's connection between sustainable development and the fundamental purpose of saving future generations from the scourge of war, they trace the reasons why development became the main activity of the world organization with the influx of almost 150 countries since 1945.

Gian Luca Burci's analytical and practical expertise provides the basis for Chapter 37, 'Health and Infectious Disease.' There is continuity between UN efforts and those by states in the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries. The control of infectious diseases has an inherently international dimension because national boundaries do not halt pathogens; and the international movement of persons, animals, and goods makes every country vulnerable. Still, the dawn of new threats—HIV/AIDS, Ebola, SARs, and avian flu to name just a few recent ones—suggests new vulnerabilities and underlines the necessity for enhanced international cooperation through the WHO and other UN organizations. A major multilateral health achievement was the eradication of smallpox in 1980—and poliomyelitis and river blindness may follow and be eradicated within the next few years. Yet progress has been slower in combating malaria, tuberculosis, and the HIV/AIDS pandemic. Whether framing diseases and bio-terrorism as threats to international peace and security will foster enhanced multilateral responses remains an open question.

In Chapter 38, 'Global Resource Management,' Nico Schrijver's experience not only as an author and teacher but also as a legal practitioner is evident in his authoritative treatment of another quintessentially modern challenge that does not respect national boundaries, the effective management of the world's natural resources. While in 1945

the then new world organization was conceived to maintain or restore international peace and security, Schrijver points out that throughout its existence the UN has had a profound impact on natural resource management, both conceptually and operationally. In many ways the UN's three blockbuster conferences on the topic of the human environment—in Stockholm in 1972 and in Rio de Janeiro in 1992 and again in 2012—are markers of the efforts by state and especially non-state actors to reframe the human relationship with the natural environment and development. As Schrijver points out, the initial clash between conservation and development was later reframed as 'sustainable development,' an analytical framework to help bridge the North–South divide. The disconnect between the size of environmental challenges and the relatively feeble international machinery for addressing them—for example, in the UN Environment Programme (UNEP)—remains stark.

Another crucial addition to this *Handbook* is Chapter 39, 'Climate Change,' by Maria Ivanova, whose teaching, research, and consultancy work has given her a deep understanding of the politics of climate change. She describes how the UN has fostered a concern for the human environment since the 1972 Stockholm Conference. A key input into the global conversation was the 1988 creation, by UNEP and the World Meteorological Organization (WMO), of the Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change (IPCC), which brought together peer-reviewed research by many of the world's foremost climate scientists. It concluded that global warming was real, that human activity was making it worse, and that without action the consequences for humanity would be dire. Another essential part of the story was the 1992 adoption of the United Nations Framework Convention on Climate Change (UNFCCC)—a political process involving all UN member states with the goal to stabilize greenhouse gas emissions, and which led to the unanimous adoption in Paris in 2015 of a treaty to keep global temperature rises below 2 °C and to attaining net zero emissions by 2050. Ivanova is disheartened by the potential impact of the Trump administration's initial decision to withdraw from this landmark agreement but remains sanguine about other countries staying the course and the positive action on climate change being taken by individual cities, states, and businesses in the United States despite the reduced level of federal ambition.

In Chapter 40, 'Democracy and Good Governance,' W. Andy Knight's long-standing research and teaching is in evidence as he examines what emerged in the 1990s as the overriding priority in approaches to development assistance and investment. Many of the states that signed the Charter in 1945 lacked democratically elected governments; but the number of democracies increased gradually to about forty in the 1970s and then dramatically after the end of the Cold War to around 120 countries. Despite some backward movement in the last decade, and disagreements about definitions, democracy and good governance remain key objectives for UN technical cooperation activities and intergovernmental deliberations. Because the UN Charter prohibits intrusion into the so-called domestic prerogatives of states, the UN has had limited success in addressing the need for better national policies—liberalization and democratization are the essence of 'good governance.' Moreover, the UN system's contribution to 'democratization' has

remained largely confined to organizing elections and the promotion of the ‘rule of law.’ Pointing out that the terms ‘democracy’ and ‘good governance’ do not figure in the Charter or the UDHR, Knight nonetheless shows how much of the UN’s normative and operational work has been devoted to these areas.

In Chapter 41, ‘Human Development,’ Richard Jolly provides an overview of this innovative approach that has characterized much of UN development thinking since the early 1990s. He also highlights the importance of numerous institutions in the UN development system that are not singled out for separate treatment in this *Handbook*. Based on a long and distinguished career as a development practitioner and theorist, Jolly argues that the UN and its component parts have followed a multidisciplinary approach to social and economic development—in contrast with the more narrowly economic framework championed, at least until the mid-1990s, by the World Bank and the IMF. Jolly commends the conceptual contributions of the UNDP’s annual (since 1990) *Human Development Report*. He views the Millennium Development Goals (MDGs) as having built a bridge between the UN system and the Bretton Woods institutions, a trend that undoubtedly will continue with the 2030 Agenda and the SDGs.

The realization of that agenda is found in Chapter 42, ‘Sustainable Development Goals,’ by Sakiko Fukuda-Parr. As an instructor, researcher, and former UN official, she has focused on setting goals and targets; in particular, she reflects on the SDGs as the latest and most ambitious such enumeration by the UN system to date. After examining earlier efforts within the system to set objectives, her chapter examines the universal and multi-partner character of the September 2015 agreement. Fukuda-Parr discusses both the strengths and pitfalls of global goal-setting—including what is lacking in the seventeen goals of the SDG framework—that arise from the UN’s efforts to promote a concerted push for sustainable development.

Part VIII: Prospects for Reform

The final part of this *Handbook* looks toward the future. The need to update the world organization in light of new threats, new opportunities, and new actors was obvious in the world summits in New York in 2005 and 2015. As we approach the seventy-fifth anniversary of the UN’s establishment in 2020, we asked three seasoned UN observers to put squarely before readers what might constrain radical structural alterations in the United Nations, and to enumerate what reform may actually be achievable in the decade to come. Although anniversaries are arbitrary dates, they help focus attention on what has—or has not—been achieved to date. All three authors point to considerable adaptation over the last three-quarters of a century.

This final part begins with Amitav Acharya’s Chapter 43, ‘Multilateralism and the Changing World Order.’ Drawing on his teaching and research on several continents, Acharya examines the momentous changes in geopolitics that were barely visible when

the first edition of this *Handbook* went to press, but that now are front and center on the world's stages, including the UN. He examines how the multilateral system, designed and established during and in the immediate aftermath of WWII, is changing. Acharya examines several drivers and signposts of change: the decline of US power; a power-shift from the West to 'the Rest' as well as from states to non-state actors; a global idea-shift; and the rise of regionalism and the fragmentation of global governance. We noted earlier in this introductory chapter that one of our main topics last time—the US role as the remaining superpower—is now clearly out of date. While Acharya does not wish to underestimate the continued authority and adaptability of existing institutions, including the United Nations, he sees multilateralism as practiced since 1945 as seriously challenged.

No one is better qualified than Edward C. Luck to examine 'Prospects for UN Renovation and Reform' in Chapter 44. A lifelong student of the UN's processes, policies, and practices as well as of crucial US–UN relations, he demonstrates that the UN system, and in particular the principal organs, adapt to a dynamic world mainly through institutional renovation and rarely through structural reform. Luck recognizes that significant change has nevertheless occurred—the United Nations has evolved in so many ways that its founders would surely be taken aback by the range and magnitude of its current activities. Luck identifies the 2016 selection of António Guterres as the latest manifestation of how the world organization has continually adjusted forms to fit functions over its lifetime. This standard UN operating procedure reflects its basic practical and political character. While the term figures in many documents and is found on many lips, including this chapter's title, the world body has been slow to enact formal structural 'reform.' He argues that attempts to solve political problems by procedural gimmicks are bound to fall short, and reminds readers that reform is a process—not an event.

A most welcome addition to this volume is Michèle Griffin's Chapter 45, 'The UN's Role in a Changing Global Landscape.' Drawing on her experience as a senior international and national civil servant as well as an analyst, her chapter is a fitting way to conclude this volume. Griffin probes the global landscape that faces António Guterres. She begins by reviewing a set of technological, economic, political, and social changes that will require the United Nations to do things very differently if it is to remain equipped for current challenges. She notes that the rule-based order is needed more than ever before, but that the future path of the current generation of intergovernmental institutions remains uncertain. Pointing out that millions of lives depend on international co-operation, Griffin reflects on eight global trends and risks that make the UN's future policy-making extraordinarily complex; they challenge the institution, and its ninth Secretary-General, to think about its comparative advantage in every major pillar of activities. Griffin makes a plea for the United Nations to get ahead of the major trends rather than react to them.

We wish readers bon voyage as they embark on their journey through the history of continuity and change in the United Nations since 1945.

NOTES

1. Hedley Bull, *The Anarchical Society: A Study* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1977). See also Robert Jackson, *The Global Covenant: Human Conduct in a World of States* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2000).
2. Adam Roberts and Benedict Kingsbury, 'Introduction: The UN's Roles in International Society since 1945,' in *United Nations: Divided World*, 2nd edn., ed. Adam Roberts and Benedict Kingsbury (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1993), 1.
3. Michael G. Schechter, *United Nations Global Conferences* (London: Routledge, 2005).
4. Inis L. Claude, Jr., *Swords into Plowshares: The Problems and Prospects of International Organization* (New York: Random House, 1956).
5. This definition is commonly used to determine whether a particular war was tabulated. See Peace Research Institute Oslo, *Trends in Armed Conflict, 1946–2014*, available at http://file.prio.no/publication_files/prio/Gates,%20Nyg%C3%A5rd,%20Strand,%20Urdal%20-%20Trends%20in%20Armed%20Conflict,%20Conflict%20Trends%201-2016.pdf.
6. UNDP, *Human Development Report 2002: Deepening Democracy in a Fragmented World* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2002), 85.
7. Adam Roberts, 'Lives and Statistics: Are 90% of War Victims Civilians?' *Survival* 52, no. 3 (2010): 115–136; and Taylor B. Seybolt, Jay D. Aronson, and Baruch Fischhoff, *Counting Civilian Casualties: An Introduction to Recording and Estimating Nonmilitary Deaths in Conflict* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2013).
8. Steven Pinker, *The Better Angels of Our Nature: Why Violence Has Declined* (New York: Viking, 2011); and Joshua S. Goldstein, *Winning the War on War: The Decline of Armed Conflict Worldwide* (New York: Dutton, 2011).
9. Andrew Mack et al. from the Human Security Report Project at Simon Fraser University generated measurements on this topic that are available at www.hsrgroup.org/. His team published voluminous reports that were published in 2005, 2009/2010, 2012, and 2013.
10. Mary Kaldor, *New and Old Wars: Organized Violence in a Global Era*, 3rd edn (Cambridge: Polity, 2012) and 'In Defence of New Wars,' *Stability* 2, no. 1 (2013): 1–16. See also Peter J. Hoffman and Thomas G. Weiss, *Humanitarianism, War, and Politics: Solferino to Syria and Beyond* (Lanham, Md.: Rowman & Littlefield, 2018).
11. Oxfam, *An Economy for the 1%*, Oxfam Briefing Paper 2010, 18 January 2016, available at www.oxfam.org/sites/www.oxfam.org/files/file_attachments/bp210-economy-one-percent-tax-havens-180116-en_o.pdf.
12. Stephen John Stedman, 'Spoiler Problems in Peace Processes,' *International Security* 22, no. 2 (1997): 5–53.
13. Union of International Associations, *Yearbook of International Organizations*, 48th edn., Volume 5 (Brussels, Belgium: Union of International Associations, 2011), using the year closest to the end of the decade and including all INGO and IGO categories. Data for IGOs from 1920 to 1940 are from Michael Wallace and J. David Singer, 'Intergovernmental Organization in the Global System, 1815–1964: A Quantitative Description,' *International Organization* 24, no. 2 (1970): 239–287.
14. John Gerard Ruggie, 'global_governance.net: The Global Compact as Learning Network,' *Global Governance* 7(4) (2001): 371–378. See also Jean-Philippe Thérien and Vincent Pouliot, 'The Global Compact: Shifting the Politics of International Development?'

- Global Governance* 12, no. 1 (2006): 55–75; and Klaus Schwab, ‘Global Corporate Citizenship: Working with Governments and Civil Society,’ *Foreign Affairs* 87, no. 1 (2008): 107–118.
15. Johan Kaufmann, *United Nations Decision Making* (Alphen aan den Rijn, Netherlands: Sijthoff & Noordhoff, 1980).
 16. Stephen Krasner, *Sovereignty: Organized Hypocrisy* (Princeton, N.J.: Princeton University Press, 1999).
 17. Andrew Chadwick, *Internet Politics: States, Citizens, and New Communication Technologies* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2006).
 18. Thomas Hale, David Held, and Kevin Young, *Gridlock: Why Global Cooperation Is Failing When We Need It Most* (Cambridge: Polity, 2013).
 19. Richard O’Brien, *Global Financial Integration: The End of Geography* (London: Pinter, 1992).
 20. Ernst B. Haas, *Beyond the Nation-State: Functionalism and International Organization* (Palo Alto, Calif.: Stanford University Press, 1964).
 21. Boutros Boutros-Ghali, *An Agenda for Peace* (New York: UN, 1992), para. 17.
 22. Frances M. Deng et al., *Sovereignty as Responsibility: Conflict Management in Africa* (Washington, D.C.: Brookings, 1996); Kofi A. Annan, ‘We the Peoples’: *The United Nations in the 21st Century* (New York: UN, 2000); and International Commission on Intervention and State Sovereignty (ICISS), *The Responsibility to Protect* (Ottawa: ICISS, 2001).
 23. Interpretations by commissioners are Gareth Evans, *The Responsibility to Protect: Ending Mass Atrocity Crimes Once and For All* (Washington, D.C.: Brookings Institution Press, 2008); and Ramesh Thakur, *The United Nations, Peace and Security: From Collective Security to the Responsibility to Protect*, 2nd edn. (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2017). See also Alex J. Bellamy, *Responsibility to Protect: The Global Effort to End Mass Atrocities* (Cambridge: Polity, 2009); Anne Orford, *International Authority and the Responsibility to Protect* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2011); Aidan Hehir, *The Responsibility to Protect: Rhetoric, Reality and the Future of Humanitarian Intervention* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012); and Thomas G. Weiss, *Humanitarian Intervention: Ideas in Action*, 3rd edn. (Cambridge: Polity, 2016).
 24. Kofi A. Annan, *The Question of Intervention: Statements by the Secretary-General* (New York: UN, 1999), 7.
 25. Gerald B. Helman and Steven R. Ratner, ‘Saving Failed States,’ *Foreign Policy*, no. 89 (1992–93): 3–20.
 26. Martin Meredith, *The State of Africa: A History of Fifty Years of Independence* (London: Free Press, 2005).
 27. John G. Ruggie, *Winning the Peace: America and World Order in the New Era* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1996), and *Constructing the World Polity: Essays on International Institutionalization* (New York: Routledge, 1998); and G. John Ikenberry, *After Victory: Institutions, Strategic Restraint, and the Rebuilding of Order after Major Wars* (Princeton, N.J.: Princeton University Press, 2001), and *Liberal Order and Imperial Ambition: American Power and International Order* (Cambridge: Polity, 2006).
 28. UNDP, *Human Development Report 2013: The Rise of the South: Human Progress in a Diverse World* (New York: UNDP, 2013), iv, available at http://hdr.undp.org/sites/default/files/reports/14/hdr2013_en_complete.pdf.
 29. Amitav Acharya, *The End of American World Order* (Cambridge: Polity, 2014), 5, 59–78, and 6–11.

30. Harold K. Jacobson, *Networks of Interdependence: International Organizations and the Global Political System*, 2nd edn. (New York: Knopf, 1984), 84.
31. Alexander Wendt, 'Why a World State Is Inevitable,' *European Journal of International Relations* 9(4) (2003): 491–542.
32. Ramesh Thakur and Thomas G. Weiss, *The UN and Global Governance: An Unfinished Journey* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2010), 28–51. See also Michael Barnett and Martha Finnemore, *Rules for the World: International Organizations in Global Politics* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2004).
33. James N. Rosenau and Ernst-Otto Czempiel, *Governance without Government: Order and Change in World Politics* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1992); and Commission on Global Governance, *Our Global Neighbourhood* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1995).
34. Thomas G. Weiss, *Global Governance: What? Why? Whither?* (Cambridge: Polity, 2013); and Thomas G. Weiss and Rorden Wilkinson, *Rethinking Global Governance* (Cambridge: Polity, 2019).
35. UNDP, *Human Development Report 1999: Globalization with a Human Face* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1999), 8.
36. Thomas G. Weiss, *Would the World Be Better without the UN?* (Cambridge: Polity, 2018); Louis Emmerij, Richard Jolly, and Thomas G. Weiss, *Ahead of the Curve? UN Ideas and Global Challenges* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2001); and Richard Jolly, Louis Emmerij, and Thomas G. Weiss, *UN Ideas that Changed the World* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2009).
37. Dan Plesch and Thomas G. Weiss, eds., *Wartime Origins and the Future United Nations* (London: Routledge, 2015).
38. Edward Hallett Carr, *The Twenty Years' Crisis, 1919–1939: An Introduction to the Study of International Relations* (London: Macmillan, 1939).
39. Freedom House, *Freedom in the World 2017*. <https://freedomhouse.org/report/freedom-world/freedom-world-2017>.
40. Quoted by Patrick Wintour, 'UN Must Reform to Defend Enlightenment Values Secretary-General Says,' *The Guardian*, 10 May 2017.
41. Kalevi J. Holsti, *Taming the Sovereigns: Institutional Change in International Politics* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2004), 12–13.
42. Erskine Childers with Brian Urquhart, *Renewing the United Nations System* (Uppsala, Sweden: Dag Hammarskjöld Foundation, 1994), 143.
43. Approximately half of the biennial 1974–1975 budget approved by UN General Assembly resolution 3551, 17 December 1975.
44. Childers and Urquhart, *Renewing the United Nations System*, 28–30, 143.
45. The related distinction between evolutionary and revolutionary change also is germane, as is the analytical distinction between punctuated equilibrium and evolution. See John Campbell, *Institutional Change and Globalization* (Princeton, N.J.: Princeton University Press, 2004), 34.
46. Holsti, *Taming the Sovereigns*, 8.
47. Malcolm Gladwell, *The Tipping Point: How Little Things Can Make a Big Difference* (Boston: Little, Brown & Co., 2002).
48. Michael Barnett and Thomas G. Weiss, eds., *Humanitarianism in Question: Politics, Power, Ethics* (Ithaca, N.Y.: Cornell University Press, 2008); and *Humanitarianism Contested: Where Angels Fear to Tread* (London: Routledge, 2011).

49. Robert Jervis, *System Effects: Complexity in Political and Social Life* (Princeton, N.J.: Princeton University Press, 1999).
50. Richard Haass, *A World in Disarray: American Foreign Policy and the Crisis of the Old Order* (New York: Penguin, 2017).
51. Kofi A. Annan, *Investing in the United Nations: For a Stronger Organization Worldwide*, UN document A/60/692, 7 March 2006, 1.
52. Inis L. Claude, Jr., 'Peace and Security: Prospective Roles for the Two United Nations,' *Global Governance* 2, no. 3 (1996): 289–298.
53. Conor Cruise O'Brien, *The United Nations: Sacred Drama* (London: Hutchinson, 1968), book jacket.
54. This development was already obvious forty-five years ago to Robert W. Cox and Harold K. Jacobson, eds., *The Anatomy of Influence: Decision Making in International Organization* (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 1973).
55. Thomas G. Weiss, Tatiana Carayannis, and Richard Jolly, 'The Third UN,' *Global Governance* 14, no. 1 (2009): 123–142.
56. Francis. H. Hinsley, *Power and the Pursuit of Peace* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1963).
57. The UN Secretary-General's Address to the General Assembly, 23 September 2003, available at: www.un.org.
58. High-level Panel on Threats, Challenges and Change, *A More Secure World: Our Shared Responsibility* (New York: UN, 2004).
59. Kofi A. Annan, 'In Larger Freedom: Decision Time at the UN,' *Foreign Affairs* 84, no. 3 (2005): 66. This is the title of his own summary document for the summit: *In Larger Freedom: Towards Development, Security and Human Rights for All*, UN document A/59/2005, 21 March 2005.
60. Kevin Rudd, 'My 10 Principles to Reform the United Nations, before It's Too Late,' *The Guardian*, 8 August 2016.
61. Andrew Hurrell, 'Foreword to the Third Edition,' Hedley Bull, *The Anarchical Society* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2002), xiii.
62. The independent United Nations Intellectual History Project began a remedial effort from 1999 to 2010. For information, see www.unhistory.org.

CHAPTER 2

ORIGINS OF THE UNITED NATIONS

JUSTIN MORRIS

WHEN Winston Churchill and Franklin D. Roosevelt met aboard the *USS Augusta* during the Atlantic Conference of August 1941, the US president initially rejected the UK prime minister's suggestion that, following Allied victory, the establishment of an 'effective international organization [would] afford to all States and peoples the means of dwelling in security.'¹ Dismissive in part because of the fear that such a proposal would founder on the rocks of US domestic opposition, Roosevelt also opposed 'the creation of a new Assembly of the League of Nations' on more fundamental grounds, 'at least until after a period of time had transpired . . . during which an international police force composed of the United States and Great Britain had had an opportunity of functioning.'² His preference was instead for great power policing of a world in which all other states would be allowed 'rifles, but nothing more dangerous.'³

Having later extended his nascent policing idea to include the Soviet Union (USSR), the president acknowledged to its approving Foreign Minister Molotov, that it would amount to 'peace by dictation',⁴ but whatever friction this might generate, he deemed such radical steps to be an indispensable ingredient in a recipe for post-war peace, which demanded 'complete realism.'⁵ Yet for many, such proposals were premised on folly rather than realism—British Foreign Secretary Anthony Eden described them as 'alarming in their cheerful fecklessness'⁶—and faced with more inclusive, globally inclined views, within three years FDR's initial plan had been jettisoned. Less than a year after this, fifty national delegations signed the Charter of the United Nations, a document that, while hardly devoid of hierarchy and great power privilege, is nevertheless a far cry from the initial designs from which it sprang.

Three-quarters of a century later it seems strange that such plans can even have been contemplated, let alone that they should have emanated from, and garnered support at, the very highest levels of global politics. This chapter traces the process of transformation that led to the abandonment of 'peace by dictation' and to the eventual creation of the United Nations organization that we know today. It begins by considering

the period 1941–1944, during which the three most powerful allies came, in significant part, to reject the elitist and emasculating nature of the ideas that characterized their initial discussions. Instead they embraced, albeit with varying levels of enthusiasm, the prospect of a near universal global organization in which states would be able to contribute to the maintenance of international peace and security in a manner commensurate with their national means. This period is considered at some length, since it was crucial in shaping the proposals that were debated at the United Nations Conference on International Organization (UNCIO), held in San Francisco in April–June 1945. At this great diplomatic gathering, which the second half of the chapter considers, delegates sought to devise an institutional structure that embodied the universally accepted need for great power hierarchy, while at the same time ensuring that the nature, extent, and duration of the constitutional powers and privileges that this bestowed were appropriately circumscribed. The conference's outcome, the 111-article UN Charter, remains a bedrock text of global politics to this day.

1941–1944: A PERIOD OF GREAT POWER DELIBERATION

Among those most central to post-war planning, namely the leaderships of the United States, Great Britain, and the Soviet Union, three points were axiomatic.⁷ First, large-scale conflict, especially involving the world's most powerful states, was not a tenable means by which to pursue interstate relations; modern warfare was so costly in terms of human lives and welfare, infrastructural damage, and disruption of trade that mechanisms had to be found through which its future occurrence could be averted. Second, it would be for the great powers to take the lead in ensuring future peace and, in order for them to do so, wartime cooperation had to continue into the post-war era. Exactly what form this great power leadership and cooperation would take would, as this chapter explains, present the architects of the post-war peace with much to debate and many differences to resolve. Third, the so-called Big Three leaderships agreed that they needed to plan.

The realization of this final point stemmed in part from the bitter experience of the League of Nations. As Roosevelt's lamentation to the Washington Press corps made clear following his meeting with Eden in March 1943, one salutary lesson from the experience of the League was that planning for the peace could not await the successful conclusion of hostilities. Only through proper planning, the statesmen agreed, could a durable peace, borne of a timely exchange of ideas, be established.⁸ But beyond this the great power leaderships realized that the war itself offered diplomatic high-ground of which they must take full advantage. Hence, as US Secretary of State Cordell Hull told leading members of the Senate, the great powers must be proactive because 'when the fighting is over . . . [their] leadership will be gone; and each country will already be preparing to

hoe its own row in the future.⁹ Similarly, but put in less oblique terms, Eden warned the British War Cabinet that in the absence of appropriate planning and leadership the great powers would be 'confronted by the prospect of a world in precarious balance, with the World Powers, each with its circle of client States, facing each other in a rivalry which may merge imperceptibly into hostility.'¹⁰

These three conclusions were underpinned, most particularly on the parts of the Americans and the British, by a powerful sense of great power responsibility, but all three states also harbored inevitable desires to ensure that the terms of the post-war settlement favored their own national interests.¹¹ US policy-makers knew only too well that the unrivaled economic and military prowess with which they would emerge from the war ensured that theirs was the state best placed to reap the benefits which the resumption of peaceful interstate relations offered. Moreover, for the by then avowedly anti-isolationist Roosevelt administration, building a post-war world in which the United States took center stage represented a decisive step in casting off the shackles of a 'suicidal'¹² policy of 'unenlightened selfishness,' based on 'folly and lack of vision.'¹³ For Britain's senior foreign policy-makers great power leadership was not simply necessary for the maintenance of peace and the success of a post-war security organization, it was the ultimate rationale for these things. Eden set out this position succinctly in November 1942, advising the War Cabinet that 'the aim of British policy must be . . . [to] continue to exercise the functions and to bear the responsibilities of a world Power,' an aim that Britain could not 'realise through [its] own unaided efforts' but which depended on it being 'part of a wider organisation.'¹⁴ Questions of status figured equally highly in Soviet thinking, and as they strove for parity of prestige with the United States and Britain, they saw central involvement in the UN planning process as both a means to and evidence of this goal. But the Soviets also sought a period of post-war, great power cooperation as a pre-requisite for military and economic regeneration and ideological consolidation. For the Kremlin the prospect of peace was far more attractive than that of war, at least in the short to medium term.

This amalgam of common cause and divergent interests inevitably led at times to tensions between the three great powers. The Soviets feared Anglo-American connivance, while American and British leaders questioned the Soviet Union's trustworthiness and future intentions, on this basis initially ruling them out as a guardian of the post-war peace¹⁵ and even contemplating war against them.¹⁶ But this was not the only fault line within the great power alliance, for British policy-makers also harbored anxieties. Conscious of how the United States had used its relative strength to leverage market access to British colonial territories during the Atlantic Conference, it was all too clear to London that post-war imperial ambition isolated Britain amidst the decolonising sentiments of the triumvirate's other members, a situation that threatened the very global status which British leaders valued above all else.¹⁷ Yet despite these tensions, British, Soviet, and US leaders remained wedded, both publicly and privately, to the creation of a post-war peace to which they would be central.¹⁸ What remained to be resolved was the form that this would take.

Given the radical nature of Roosevelt's initial plans for the maintenance of post-war peace, it is notable—and some might say fortunate—that the president largely delegated

responsibility for planning this to key individuals in the State Department while he concentrated his efforts on the successful prosecution of the war.¹⁹ Hull and Welles—often bitter adversaries but nevertheless united in their advocacy of US leadership of a broad-based inclusive security organization²⁰—along with the other like-minded individuals within the State Department to steer and shape US planning. Britain's more limited contribution to preparing for a world after war, combined with the decidedly marginal and largely reactive role of the USSR,²¹ made this division of US labor crucial, but its mirroring in the United Kingdom did, nevertheless, accentuate its importance. Here Churchill's determination not to allow what he saw as 'remote post-war problems to absorb the energy which [was] required . . . for the prosecution of the war'²² minimized the impact of his often vacillating, but largely pro-regionalist views on international organization.²³ Consequently, the majority view within the British War Cabinet, favorable to a far more global approach to maintaining post-war peace and championed by figures such as Deputy Prime Minister Clement Attlee and by Eden, prevailed in Britain's post-war planning.²⁴ With such a broadly shared disposition on both sides of the Atlantic, planning for what eventually became the United Nations underwent a transformation that resulted in an institution barely recognizable as the offspring of 'peace by dictation.'

Deciding on the Great Powers

Despite such changes those who favored an inclusive, globally based organization never envisaged anything other than an institution in which the great powers would shoulder the greatest burdens in maintaining the peace while also enjoying the institutional privileges commensurate with such a task; hierarchy, if not dictation, would prevail. This *sine qua non* did, however, raise a fundamental question: which states were worthy of such a position? Initial Anglo-American reservations over the USSR notwithstanding, the three countries assumed their positions to be beyond question, but beyond this the views of the Big Three diverged significantly.

Staunchly championed by Washington, China was the first to be considered for entry into the top rank. Acknowledging its current material limitations but with expectations of future greatness, China was favored by US leaders as a strategic counterbalance to a potentially resurgent Japan or an expansionist Soviet Union, as well as a likely ally on issues of decolonization. These very same points served as major grounds for objection in Moscow and London, but both the Soviets and the British reluctantly acquiesced to American demands as the price to be paid for ensuring continued US engagement in the building of the post-war peace.²⁵

Following a similar script but with the actors playing different parts, Britain advocated France's inclusion into the great power cadre, partly as a consequence of Churchill's preoccupation with the 'revival of the glory of Europe,'²⁶ but also because France was seen as a counterbalance to Germany and the Soviet Union, and as a dependable ally on questions of empire.²⁷ It was now the Americans and Soviets who questioned the material credentials of the aspirant state, with Soviet opposition accentuated by their

scathing assessment of France's capitulation to Germany,²⁸ but as planning progressed, British reasoning became increasingly appealing to the Americans.²⁹ Faced with this US change of heart, the Russians accepted the idea that a restored France be counted as a great power, the reason once again being 'simply the need to keep in step with the Americans.'³⁰

The only other state to be considered for promotion to the rank of the great powers was Brazil. Both Roosevelt and Hull favored its inclusion on the grounds of its contribution to the war effort and its material potential, but they also believed that it would placate Latin American concerns over regional marginalization. Such arguments found little support, however, among key US policy advisors. Moreover, coupled with the hostile reception which the proposal received when tentatively raised with the British and Soviets, Brazil's case never was formally tabled.³¹

This brief account demonstrates not only that the Big Three viewed great power leadership as central to post-war planning, but also that they believed themselves free to determine which states, irrespective of their actual material capability, might be afforded the privileges of high status. In other ways, however, the direction of diplomatic travel was quite different.

Organizational Membership and Structure

One of the most marked transitions away from the initial ideas expressed by Roosevelt occurred in relation to the issue of organizational membership and structure. As alluded to above, the President's preference had previously been for the United States, Britain, the USSR, and China to act as the 'policemen of the world . . . impos[ing] peace' on its otherwise disarmed members.³² Yet within eighteen months of Roosevelt expressing these views to Molotov, the Soviet Foreign Minister had himself met with his British and American counterparts at the Moscow Conference of October 1943 to negotiate and sign the 'Declaration of Four Nations on General Security,' an agreement that heralded a far less dictatorial approach to the maintenance of post-war peace.³³

The Declaration, subsequently signed by the Chinese Ambassador to Russia, 'recogniz[ed] the necessity of establishing at the earliest practicable date a general international organization, based on the principle of the sovereign equality of all peace-loving states, and open to membership by all such states, large and small, for the maintenance of international peace and security.'³⁴ Stating also that 'pending . . . the inauguration of a system of general security' the great powers would consult with one another with a view to taking the actions necessary to maintain peace, the Declaration was not a total repudiation of Roosevelt's earliest thinking, but in also acknowledging that in so acting they might 'consult . . . as occasion requires with other [states],' it did represent a significant if subtle recasting of the plan.

By this time Roosevelt was himself becoming increasingly receptive to the idea of a more inclusive organization, but when he met with Churchill and Stalin in Tehran in November 1943, the schema which he unveiled to them was avowedly hierarchical in

nature.³⁵ It proposed a three-tier structure, with the whole membership of the organization meeting in a discursive and advisory body, above this an 'Executive Committee' comprised of ten states including the four great powers with only recommendatory powers, and atop them all the 'Four Policemen,' sitting in splendid isolation with the authority to deal decisively with disputes, using force if necessary.³⁶ This extreme stratification was not to last, however, for following an intense period of intra-administration deliberation over whether it should be the Four Policemen or the Executive Committee that should be jettisoned, the president reviewed the options placed before him by the State Department and in February 1944 eventually made the pivotal decision to dispense with the Four Policemen strata.³⁷ This decision effectively marked the climax of Roosevelt's journey away from 'peace by dictation' and brought clarity to US policy; by July 1944 Washington's final blueprint for a post-war security organization was based on a 'General Assembly' of all members and an eleven member 'Executive Council' comprising the four great powers (plus France once its governmental status was clarified) and seven elected states (decreasing to six once France assumed its seat).³⁸

British and Soviet planning on this matter was, as noted, less developed and detailed than that of the United States, but it culminated nevertheless in plans that had much in common with those emanating from Washington. The relatively slow pace of British planning was in part a result of internal debates over whether a regional or a global approach to peace offered the best way forward, but Churchill, the ardent but largely isolated advocate of the former, also earned the ire of colleagues by more generally stymieing the whole process.³⁹ Hence, by July 1943 the most detailed plan yet to be seen by the War Cabinet only referred in general terms to a 'World Council,' comprising the Big Three plus the Chinese, with the possibility that '[t]o these might be added the representatives of smaller Powers,' and below this a collection of ill-defined regional bodies and possibly a world assembly, meeting only periodically in order to exercise its purely discursive powers.⁴⁰ Nine months later, however, the War Cabinet considered and accepted a proposal for a global approach that echoed US thinking by centring on a two-tiered structure of a general assembly and a council comprising the great powers accompanied by a small number of lesser powers.⁴¹ The Soviets, meanwhile, maintained until July 1944 that great power planning for a post-war security organization should proceed without an exchange of draft proposals,⁴² but by mid-August had themselves unveiled a plan which, once again, followed a two-tier structure akin to that envisaged by their US and British counterparts.⁴³ With the Big Three now essentially of like mind in terms of overall institutional structure, the forthcoming conference in Dumbarton Oaks was set to dispel once and for all the idea of 'peace by dictation' first aired some three years previously by President Roosevelt.

Disarmament

One issue central to the initial idea of 'peace by dictation,' over which there was still to be a meeting of minds by the time of the Dumbarton Oaks Conference in August 1944, was

disarmament. In the Atlantic Charter, the United States and Britain had declared that the disarmament of aggressive, or potentially aggressive states was 'essential,' while all other states should be 'aid[ed] and encourage[d]' to take 'practical measures which will lighten for peace-loving peoples the crushing burden of armaments.'⁴⁴ But the logical corollary of accepting that the lesser powers should be included within the membership of a post-war peace organization was that they should also have sufficient military strength to enable them to contribute toward the maintenance of world peace. Modified to account for this view, US planning during much of 1943 centred on the notion of prescribing, and potentially policing, acceptable levels of armaments.⁴⁵ But eventually this notion was deemed too complicated to garner US public support and too inflexible to be practicable, so it eventually was rejected in favor of a more general commitment to regulate armaments and control the manufacture of and trade in arms.⁴⁶

British plans 'only made a passing reference to the regulation of armaments,'⁴⁷ but while the language deliberately replicated that of the Americans, London's scepticism over prospects for disarmament led the British to very different conclusions over how ambitious the new organization should seek to be in this regard. This created a significant trans-Atlantic policy fissure, but the gap was larger still between the British and Soviets, with the latter being the conference's most ardent exponents of disarmament.⁴⁸ The solution was an uneasy compromise; the Soviet-favored notion of arms 'reduction' would not feature in the conference's final draft, while 'disarmament' would fall within the non-binding remit of the embryonic organization's assembly.

Robert Hilderbrand concludes his discussion of the Dumbarton Oaks discussions over disarmament by stating that '[t]oo much disagreement existed among the Big Three for anything of substance . . . to be accomplished,'⁴⁹ but while this might be correct in the context of the specific event that constitutes the focus of his analysis, seen in broader context this claim is more questionable. They may have struggled to find common ground over ambition, language, and institutional competence, but the Big Three had agreed something that was in many ways far more fundamental; contrary to the idea of 'peace by dictation,' they would not be the only states whose right to bear arms would be recognized and respected in the post-war world.

THE SAN FRANCISCO CONFERENCE AND THE CREATION OF THE UNITED NATIONS ORGANIZATION

After almost four years of planning and negotiating the great powers were finally in a position to unveil their proposals and to seek approval for the Charter of the organization they had decided would be called the United Nations.⁵⁰ Their conference at Yalta in February 1945 had enabled them, after some discordant negotiations, to place the final piece in the proposed institutional jigsaw when they resolved their differences over the

power of veto to be afforded the permanent members of the nascent Security Council.⁵¹ Having done so they also agreed, as the forthcoming event's sponsoring governments, that the United States should issue invitations for a conference, to be held in San Francisco, starting on 25 April 1945. Beyond the four great powers, forty-two other states were initially invited, but the question of other potential conference attendees rapidly became the event's first point of disagreement, primarily because of Soviet insistence that Argentina should not be added to the list, whereas Poland—represented by its favored, but otherwise contested, Lublin government—should. After several days of wrangling an agreed attendee list of fifty states, which did not include Poland amongst its number, was agreed, but as Ruth Russell has argued, the whole membership episode generated 'acrimony and suspicion that [would] continue . . . to mark the . . . conference discussions on more difficult substantive issues.'⁵²

The dispute over participation at the conference further exacerbated an already evident rift among the sponsoring governments, with the USSR an increasingly estranged member of the quadrumvirate. In this lay the potential to derail the whole UN project, yet despite their disagreements, the great powers often found considerable common cause, centred on their shared status. This prevailing, if at times strained, sense of common identity provided the sponsors with an impetus to act in unison and this, coupled with the obvious negotiating advantage that their material strength gave them, proved a major factor in the conference's deliberations. But in addition the great powers also enjoyed three crucial procedural advantages: first, the conference would not proceed on the basis of a blank sheet, but would rather be based on a discussion of the Dumbarton Oaks Proposals (DOPs) which the great powers had themselves authored and agreed; second, amendments to these proposals would have to be passed not by a simple majority, but rather by a two-thirds majority; and third, members of their delegations would chair the conference's most powerful committees.⁵³

It would, however, be a mistake to view the San Francisco conference as a mere symbolic game, played with a stacked deck, and pitting 'the great' against 'the rest,' for what the record shows is far more nuanced. It should instead be seen as an attempt to strike a balance between acceptance and circumscription, with lesser power delegates recognizing the need for great power leadership and privilege, but also keen to ensure that any prerogatives granted were appropriately defined and constrained. Moreover, as Goodrich and Hambro have noted, in this regard the lesser powers were not without success, for during the conference

there were in practice fairly important questions on which the smaller nations were able to press their points of view successfully in the face of considerable great power resistance . . . [I]t would seem to be a justifiable view of the work of the Conference that the smaller powers did succeed in many instances in introducing important changes in the Dumbarton Oaks Proposals.⁵⁴

These successes notwithstanding, inevitably the conference at times assumed the form of a contest between the great and lesser powers. When this occurred it was

clearly not one between equals, but nevertheless it is notable, given the circumstances, that the occasions on which the great powers presented issues as a *fait accompli* were surprisingly few.

This sense of a balance needing to be struck was underpinned by an understanding of the differing roles that states would be expected to play within the UN. Hence, as the Columbian delegation stated during the conference's opening addresses:

For the purpose of preventing another war we are prepared to subordinate . . . principles which we . . . deem to be fundamental . . . [W]ith the aim of adjusting our conduct to reality, we have talked of international hierarchy more than at any previous conference . . . We have said that some have more responsibility and greater duties than the rest for the security of the world, and must consequently, be in possession of better means to comply with their responsibilities adequately. Juridical equality seems thus to be subordinated to political responsibility. We small nations well understand that otherwise the world organisation would be feeble and we are ready to accept the fact that security, which is based on the force to be employed against the violators of international law, should be likewise a question of hierarchy in responsibility.⁵⁵

Other delegations responded in a similar vein, invariably accompanied by expressions of gratitude for the part the great powers had played in defeating the Axis. These views provided a common backdrop against which the conference would proceed.⁵⁶ Yet the desire to place constraints on the great powers is also clear from the record. Among its many thousands of pages, particular examples of this are too numerous to count—let alone to chronicle—but brief consideration of certain themes provides a flavor of how the balancing of acceptance and circumscription played out in the summer of 1945.

The UN Charter and International Law

One such theme is international law, which many delegations—particularly those from Latin America along with, unsurprisingly given their experiences of the 1930s, Ethiopia and Czechoslovakia—wished to see feature more heavily in the Charter. For its advocates, the notion of equality before the law and the protection that it was seen as affording to all member states would, at least to some extent, serve to counterbalance the inherently hierarchical aspects of the proposals under consideration. Conversely, the initial scarcity of reference to international law in the DOPs was due to a reluctance on the part of the great powers to see the UN, and more particularly their roles within it, subjected to what they perceived to be overly intrusive legal constraint. Determined to avoid the fate of the League of Nations in which they believed technical arguments had stymied effectiveness, their aim was to build an organization that would be primarily political and strategic, rather than legal in nature, and thereby to maximize the discretion available to them and consequently their room for diplomatic maneuver. As the Panamanian delegate to the conference exclaimed, such great power proclivities were evident from

the time at which the DOPs were first circulated, with ‘many thinking persons . . . astonished to note that the phrase “international law” did not appear one single time in the two chapters on Purposes and Principles of the Organization; [and] that in the whole document it appeared only once.’⁵⁷ For critics of this omission, a better balance had to be struck.

Two crucial matters of conference debate, related to the purposes and principles of the UN, and to proposals to define aggression, illustrate the issue. It was on the first of these that the sponsoring governments gave most ground, themselves proposing early in the conference that (what became) Article 1(1) of the Charter be amended to state that steps to maintain international peace and security must be taken ‘with due regard for principles of justice and international law.’⁵⁸ This view was, however, deemed ‘not sufficiently emphatic’ by the relevant drafting committee and as the record shows, ‘“with due regard” consequently became “in conformity with.”’⁵⁹ Willing to concede this change, the sponsoring governments nevertheless sought to block proposals that the maintenance of justice and international law themselves become purposes of the UN, insisting that consideration of such issues would only delay the primary objective of restoring or maintaining peace.⁶⁰ With the great powers unable to garner majority support for their argument, it was only their opponents’ failure to secure two-thirds majority support that staved off the amendment,⁶¹ and with the vote falling victim to this procedural technicality, justice and law remained means, rather than ends, of the world organization.

The sponsoring governments secured more extensive support when opposing suggestions that a definition of aggression be included in the Charter. Supported by a number of delegations, Bolivia argued that ‘the Council’s work would be facilitated if a definite list [of acts constituting aggression] were written in the Charter’ since this would ‘provide for automatic Council action in these cases,’⁶² but such automaticity ran counter to great power aims. Accordingly, the American and British delegations offered a three-pronged retort, arguing that: technical advancements rapidly made such definition redundant;⁶³ ‘mak[ing] Council action automatic would be dangerous for it might force premature application of sanctions’;⁶⁴ and predetermination ‘might endanger the Council’s free discretion’ and was therefore ‘in contradiction . . . with the general spirit of the Charter.’⁶⁵ Unable to gather even majority support, the proposal fell, and with this the Security Council, and in particular the great powers at its helm, gained the unfettered ability to determine what constitutes a threat to international peace and security.

The General Assembly and the Security Council

A second issue illustrates well the balance between acceptance and circumscription of great power prerogatives that the San Francisco delegates sought to strike: the relationship between the General Assembly and the Security Council. Inevitably, given the manner in which the DOPs sought to concentrate power in the hands of the latter, this issue was widely discussed, but two particular aspects of the debate warrant comment.

The first relates to the Assembly's powers in relation to issues of international peace and security. In their responses to the DOPs, few delegations sought to challenge the essential division of labor between the Security Council and General Assembly, nor the fact that the former would have power of decision whilst the latter would be empowered only to make recommendations, but this left open the question of how broad this power of recommendation should be. A crucial question was whether the Assembly should be able to make recommendations relating to matters with which the Council was concurrently dealing, with opinions succinctly summarized in the official record as follows:

On the one hand . . . the principle of no limitation on the Assembly's powers of discussion and recommendations must be maintained, if the Assembly were in fact to be the forum of world opinion; on the other hand . . . any amendment which would create the possibility of a conflict between the Security Council and the Assembly would derogate from the essential concept underlying the Dumbarton Oaks Proposals . . . [T]he problem was one of reconciling democracy with efficiency.⁶⁶

After considerable debate, it was finally accepted that the Charter would come down on the side of 'efficiency'; the Assembly would be disbarred from making recommendations regarding matters of which the Council was seized.⁶⁷

Similar counter-arguments led to the dismissal of the second, more radical set of suggestions over the relationship between the Security Council and the General Assembly, namely that the former should 'on any matter relating to the maintenance of international peace and security be subject to ratification or veto by a fixed majority (such as three-fourths or two-thirds) of the General Assembly';⁶⁸ or that, in specific relation to enforcement action, 'the Assembly be associated with prior decisions of the Council by endorsing its decisions through a simple majority.'⁶⁹ Rejecting the notion of oversight that such proposals entailed preserved the division of institutional labor set out in the DOPs and it is noteworthy that it was majority votes against, rather the conference's voting requirements, that defeated such proposals when they were put to a vote. As Goodrich and Hambro have noted, the relationship between the Security Council and General Assembly set out in the DOPs was premised in large part on the belief that a failure to ensure a clear separation of roles and powers for the equivalent bodies in the League of Nations was a major source of weakness for the UN's predecessor.⁷⁰ In rejecting proposals for an enhanced role for the UN's General Assembly, the San Francisco delegations were effectively endorsing this logic, and in so doing so they were actively accepting, rather than begrudgingly acquiescing to, the hierarchical nature of the UN system more generally.

The Power of Veto

The power of the Security Council's permanent five members (P-5) to veto non-procedural decisions is the most pronounced example of great power privilege in the

Charter. The provision also generated the kind of tensions that typified the San Francisco Conference: self-interested but institutionally necessary; and contentious but essential. Such tensions were, indeed, evident well before the UNCIO, for while each of the Big Three coveted a power of veto, they struggled to find common ground over its extent and limits. The agreement reached at Yalta enabled the sponsoring governments to present a united front over this issue, espousing arguments, no doubt sincerely proffered, that a right of great power veto was essential if the UN was to succeed in its objectives. But as deliberations progressed, a sense that discord over this issue might destroy the whole UN project became increasingly palpable.⁷¹

Having resolved their own differences over this most sensitive of issues, the great powers viewed their unity of action as indispensable to the success of the institution that they were seeking to create. The war may have shown what happened when great powers came into conflict, but it also demonstrated what they could achieve when they worked together. The veto, as a means of helping maintain great power unity, facilitated such cooperation.⁷² On this basis, the British delegate argued that the Dumbarton Oak's voting provisions 'were in the interests, broadly judged, of all states and not merely the permanent members . . . [The need for] unanimity of the great powers was a hard fact but an inescapable one. The veto power was a means of preserving that unanimity, and far from being a menace to the small powers, it was their essential safeguard.'⁷³

While there was general acceptance of this argument that the UN depended ultimately on the material might of the great powers and on their continuing cooperation and that this collaboration, in turn, necessitated the extension to them of certain constitutional privileges, the conference nevertheless became mired in a lengthy and often rancorous debate over just how extensive the right to veto should be. Under the sponsoring governments' Yalta formula, procedural matters were not subject to veto, but all substantive questions were.⁷⁴ Given the manner in which the great powers envisaged the procedural-substantive divide, decisions pertaining to the pacific settlement of disputes were subject to the veto, albeit subject to the proviso that in such cases any great power party to the dispute could not exercise its veto right. The extension of the veto to pacific settlement and the prospect—albeit only in certain circumstances—that such a right would enable a great power to prevent the passing of judgment in its own case, was what many of the conference delegates objected to.

Having encountered so many difficulties in grappling with the same issues themselves before agreeing the Yalta formula, the sponsoring governments were in no mood to compromise. Consequently, and in contrast to other issues over which they had been prepared to give at least some ground, over the veto they presented the numerous dissenters with an ultimatum; if they 'desired to see a world Organization established, [they] would approve the voting provisions as they . . . stood,' the British delegation told the drafting committee.⁷⁵ Later the same day, when the committee resumed its deliberation, the Americans were similarly blunt asking, according the official record, 'if the delegates could face public opinion at home if they reported that they had killed the veto but had also killed the Charter.'⁷⁶ In the face of such great power opposition the opponents of the Yalta formula conceded defeat, with the Australian amendment around which they

had coalesced being voted down by twenty votes to ten, but with no fewer than fifteen abstentions.⁷⁷ For much of the conference the sponsoring governments had been prepared to give ground, but some issues were considered so central to their plans as to be sacrosanct. As US delegate Senator Arthur Vandenberg would record in his personal diary the day after the vote:

It [was] perfectly evident that most of the nations do not like any part of this “veto” business . . . [T]hey have put up a bitter fight. But it has also been evident from the first that this kind of a League (dependent primarily upon the Big Five for its real authority) must have the Big Five veto in all matters involving force. Yesterday the other nations simply surrendered to the inevitable.⁷⁸

Charter Amendment

During the course of the debates over voting procedures one issue had become deeply intertwined with the veto, namely how to amend the Charter. Under the DOPs, Charter amendment would require a two-thirds vote by the General Assembly, followed by ratification by half the UN membership, including the Security Council’s five permanent members. But the ability to veto amendments evoked significant opposition. The Uruguayan delegate captured well the sentiments of many opponents of the proposal when he argued that it was ‘unreasonable to include [in the Charter] rigid and inflexible rules which might make revisions practically impossible.’ Since, he insisted, the Charter must be able to adapt to ‘changing conditions in the world,’ which would, in all likelihood, follow the war, it was ‘not . . . appropriate . . . to establish a permanent international juridical order.’⁷⁹

In partial recognition of this argument’s merits, the sponsoring governments introduced an amendment allowing for the calling of a conference to review the Charter, but this possibility failed to placate opposition voices because of what was perceived to be the prohibitive requirement that such an event could only be triggered by a three-quarters majority in a vote of UN members.⁸⁰ In response the sponsoring governments eventually agreed to a two-thirds majority and by way of further compromise, the United States also proposed a ten-year deadline after which a conference to consider amendments would be held subject to approval by a simple majority of the General Assembly and seven out of eleven votes in the Council.⁸¹ This latter suggestion split the sponsoring governments, the Soviets opposing the proposal for fear that any resulting conference would be used ‘to destroy the veto power,’ but such concerns found little support and the proposal passed.⁸²

Agreement on how to convene such a conference was still left open, however, when the even thornier issue of the permanent members’ ability to effectively veto amendments to the Charter arose. Here, as elsewhere when the veto was being discussed more generally, the sponsoring governments maintained their unity and showed no appetite for compromise. Indeed, for them these two points of debate were indistinguishable as

the British delegation explained: '[I]t would be both illogical and unsound to create an Organization which is based upon the principle of the unanimity of the great powers and at the same time provide means for changing the structure of the Organization at any time in the future which should not take that principle into account.'⁸³ With the UN's more general voting procedures, including in relation to the veto, having been approved only a matter of days before, opposition to the DOPs regarding amendment ebbed. In a far clearer cut vote than that relating to the general veto provision, the proposal enabling the Security Council's permanent members to block changes to the Charter was approved by the drafting committee by thirty-four votes to eight, with only four abstentions.⁸⁴

CONCLUSION

The story behind the creation of the United Nations is the story of international relations in microcosm. At its heart is the question which is fundamental to all political discourse and practice: how do we productively channel and simultaneously constrain power? 'Peace by dictation' offered a very particular answer, one that today is difficult to imagine even having been contemplated. But the events, negotiations, and decisions that it triggered speak of a brief moment in history, when the horizons of political optimism and ambition were wider than they have perhaps ever been since. With the benefit of over seven decades of hindsight, we know that the desire of those who convened in San Francisco in 1945 to 'save succeeding generations from the scourge of war' has not been met. Indeed, rather than act in unison to preserve global peace, the great powers adopted policies that threatened Armageddon.

However, between 1941 and 1945 those who had opposed the Axis Powers engaged in a diplomatic enterprise that continues to have profound implications today. For all of its imperfections, we continue to judge the behavior of states against the standards of the UN and its Charter. While recalcitrant behavior is very rarely opposed in the manner in which the Charter's authors anticipated, such judgment means that even the wrongs of the most powerful incur costs, at least in diplomatic terms. Counterfactuals are notoriously perilous analytical terrain, but whilst we can only speculate about how the UN would have fared had its founders continued down the road to 'peace by dictation,' it seems most unlikely that it would have led to a better place than that in which the world has found itself since a more inclusive approach to striving to maintain international peace and security was adopted.

NOTES

1. Sumner Welles, *Where Are We Heading?* (London: Hamish Hamilton, 1947), 6.
2. *Foreign Relations of the United States* (hereafter *FRUS*), 1941, Volume I, 363.

3. Warren F. Kimball, *The Juggler: Franklin Roosevelt as Wartime Statesman* (Princeton, N.J.: Princeton University Press, 1991), 85–86.
4. *FRUS*, 1942, Volume III, 568–569.
5. *FRUS*, 1941, Volume I, 363.
6. Anthony Eden, *The Eden Memoirs: The Reckoning* (London: Cassell, 1965), 433.
7. Justin Morris, 'From "Peace by Dictation" to International Organisation: Great Power Responsibility and the Creation of the United Nations,' *International History Review* 35, no. 3 (2013): 511–533.
8. *FRUS*, 1943, Volume III, 41–43.
9. Cordell Hull, *The Memoirs of Cordell Hull* (London: Hodder & Stoughton, 1948), 1661.
10. CAB 66/38/50, W[ar Cabinet]P[apers](43)300, 7 July 1943. For War Cabinet Papers see www.nationalarchives.gov.uk/cabinetpapers/cabinet-gov/cab66-second-world-war-memoranda.htm#Cabinet%20Memoranda%201939%20to%201945.
11. Morris, 'From "Peace by Dictation,"' 517–518.
12. *FRUS* 1943, Volume I, 592; Hull, *Memoirs*, 1228–1229.
13. Townsend Hoopes and Douglas Brinkley, *FDR and the Creation of the U.N.* (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 1997), 59. See also Sumner Welles, *Where Are We Heading?* 1–50.
14. CAB 66/30/46, WP(42)516, 8 November 1942.
15. Ruth B. Russell, *A History of the United Nations Charter: The Role of the United States 1940–1945* (Washington, D.C.: The Brookings Institution, 1958), 11–43.
16. *FRUS*, 1943, Volume III, 1–47; CAB/66/38/42, WP (43) 292, 1 July 1943.
17. Kimball, *The Juggler*, 126–157.
18. Morris, 'From "Peace by Dictation,"' 518–519.
19. Welles, *Where Are We Heading?*, 16; Hull, *Memoirs*, 1625–1655.
20. Sumner Welles, *Seven Decisions That Shaped History* (New York: Harper Brothers, 1950), 172–198; Hull, *Memoirs*, 1642–1648.
21. Robert C. Hilderbrand, *Dumbarton Oaks: The Origins of the United Nations and the Search for Postwar Peace* (London: University of North Carolina Press, 1990), 44–66.
22. Winston S. Churchill, *The Grand Alliance* (Boston, Mass.: Houghton Mifflin, 1950), 721.
23. E. J. Hughes, 'Winston Churchill and the Formation of the United Nations Organization,' *Journal of Contemporary History* 9, no. 4 (1974): 183–189.
24. Geoffrey L. Goodwin, *Britain and the United Nations* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1957), 4–14.
25. Hilderbrand, *Dumbarton Oaks*, 58–60; WP(42)516; Winston Churchill, *The Hinge of Fate* (Boston: Houghton Mifflin, 1950), 133; and *FRUS*, 1943, The Conferences at Cairo and Tehran, 529–533.
26. Churchill, *Hinge of Fate*, 562.
27. Russell, *United Nations Charter*, 77–82; CAB/66/33/31, WP(43)31, 16 January 1943.
28. *FRUS*, 1942, Volume III, 569.
29. Silvino Pons, 'In the Aftermath of the Age of Wars: the Impact of World War II on Soviet Security Policy,' in *Russia in the Age of Wars 1914–1945*, ed. Silvino Pons and Andrea Romano (Milano, Italy: Fondazione Giangiacomo Feltrinelli, 2000), 282–283.
30. Geoffrey Roberts, *Stalin's Wars: From World War to Cold War, 1939–1953* (New Haven, Conn.: Yale University Press, 2006), 197.
31. Hilderbrand, *Dumbarton Oaks*, 123–127.
32. *FRUS*, 1942, Volume III, 568–569.

33. *FRUS*, 1943, Volume I, 755–756.
34. *FRUS*, 1943, Volume I, 756.
35. Russell, *United Nations Charter*, 205–275.
36. *FRUS*, 1943, The Conferences at Cairo and Tehran, 530; Herbert Feis, *Churchill Roosevelt Stalin: The War They Waged and the Peace They Sought* (Princeton, N.J.: Princeton University Press, 1957), 269–271.
37. Hilderbrand, *Dumbarton Oaks*, 34–35.
38. *FRUS*, 1944, Volume I, 655–658.
39. Ben Pimlott, ed., *The Second World War Diary of Hugh Dalton, 1940–1945* (London: Cape, 1986), 519.
40. WP(43)300.
41. CAB/66/49/20, WP(44)220, 22 April 1944.
42. *FRUS*, 1944, Volume 1, 669–670.
43. *FRUS* 1944, Volume I, 706–711.
44. *FRUS*, 1942, Volume III, 569.
45. Russell, *United Nations Charter*, 238–240.
46. *FRUS*, Volume 1, 663; Russell, *United Nations Charter*, 268–271.
47. WP(44)220.
48. Hilderbrand, *Dumbarton Oaks*, 159–163.
49. Hilderbrand, *Dumbarton Oaks*, 163.
50. For text of the Dumbarton Oaks proposals see www.ibiblio.org/pha/policy/1944/441007a.html.
51. S. M. Plokhly, *Yalta: The Price of Peace* (London: Viking, 2010), 117–127.
52. Russell, *United Nations Charter*, 639.
53. Leyland Goodrich and Edvard Hambro, *The Charter of the United Nations: Commentary and Documents* (Boston Mass.: World Peace Foundation, 1949), 10–20.
54. *Ibid.*, 17.
55. *UNCIO*, Volume 1, 360.
56. *UNCIO*, Volume 3.
57. *UNCIO*, Volume 6, 79.
58. *UNCIO*, Volume 3, 622.
59. *UNCIO*, Volume 6, 702.
60. *UNCIO*, Volume 6, 25–26, 29–31.
61. *UNCIO*, Volume 6, 317–318.
62. *UNCIO*, Volume 12, 341.
63. *UNCIO*, Volume 11, 17.
64. *UNCIO*, Volume 12, 342.
65. *UNCIO*, Volume 11, 18.
66. *UNCIO*, Volume 9, 33.
67. *UNCIO*, Volume 9, 108–110.
68. *UNCIO*, Volume 9, 52.
69. *UNCIO*, Volume 12, 296.
70. Goodrich and Hambro, *Charter of the United Nations*, 150.
71. *UNCIO*, Volume 9, 117–133; and Stephen C. Schlesinger, *Act of Creation: The Founding of the United Nations* (Boulder Colo.: Westview Press, 2003), 193–225.
72. *UNCIO*, Volume 11, 332–334, 490–493.
73. *UNCIO*, Volume 11, 475.

74. See Chapter VI, Section C.
75. *UNCIO*, Volume 9, 475.
76. *UNCIO*, Volume 9, 493.
77. *UNCIO*, Volume 9, 494.
78. Quoted in Schlesinger, *Act of Creation*, 223.
79. *UNCIO*, Volume 7, 145.
80. *UNCIO*, Volume 7, 230–231.
81. *Ibid.*
82. *UNCIO*, Volume 7, 251.
83. *UNCIO*, Volume 6, 122.
84. *UNCIO*, Volume 7, 253.

PART II

THEORETICAL
FRAMEWORKS

CHAPTER 3

POLITICAL APPROACHES

MICHAEL BARNETT AND MARTHA FINNEMORE

FOR the first four decades of the UN's existence, efforts to theorize the United Nations were scattered at best. Historically, scholars in the two major academic fields of study concerned with the UN, international relations and international law, developed theories that largely sidelined the organization. Theories of international relations tended to be theories of states in which international organizations like the UN were mere stages on which others (mostly states) act. International legal scholarship was dominated by a related stance—legal positivism—which has been highly influential in that field and has largely understood law to be solely the product of explicit contracts among states. The consequence in both fields was scholarly neglect. National capitals, not New York, were seen as the place policies are made. The UN might provide a convenient site for state representatives to bargain and negotiate, but the organization itself was not seen as causally consequential on more than minor matters. Without conceptual equipment that enabled them to conceive of the UN as an independent actor in its own right, scholars had little reason to study the organization.

This situation began to change from 1989 onwards. The end of the Cold War, September 11th, and wars in Afghanistan and across the Middle East led to a resurgence of activity in and around the UN. During the 1990s, the UN became not only a site for, but also a leader of, initiatives in global governance in many areas. The expansion of peacekeeping operations, both quantitatively and qualitatively, and the deployment of peace enforcement operations, made the UN a consequential player in the security field. Some of these efforts brought the organization new acclaim, as in El Salvador, Namibia, and Cambodia. Even when they went horribly wrong, as in Bosnia and Rwanda, it was widely understood that, for better or worse, the world organization was shaping outcomes. The UN developed criteria for what kinds of states would be built after conflicts. It set standards for and successfully implemented free and fair elections in far-flung places under difficult conditions. With the Millennium Development Goals (MDGs), it set an ambitious new development agenda, not only for itself, but also for the World Bank, the International Monetary Fund (IMF), bilateral aid organizations, and the host of non-governmental organizations (NGOs) involved in development work.

Far from ending in 2015, these efforts have continued and expanded with the Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs). Over the last few years, states and NGOs have operated under the UN's flag as they seek to grapple with climate change, emergency relief, and migration. Even the Sisyphus-like efforts to reform the institution itself underscore not only the UN's shortcomings but also the range of actors that believe the world organization makes a difference. If the UN matters to both state and non-state actors, it should matter to scholars.

Indeed, scholars have been paying more attention, in part because of the UN's expanded activity but also because of changes in theoretical fashion and the development of new theoretical tools. Scholars of diverse kinds now think about the UN as more than a simple arena for state action. They also now look for more varied effects that the world body might have than simply forcing reluctant states to conform to resolutions and the Charter. Certainly there are moments when the UN can frustrate the plans of strong states, but scholars are now exploring a much broader array of sometimes indirect ways in which the world organization influences events. UN action can enhance prospects for international cooperation. It can legitimate policies and stabilize world order. It can create and diffuse international norms, policies, and models of political organization around the globe. With new and more varied theoretical tools, scholars are exploring ways in which the UN not only regulates the existing activities of states but also helps to constitute the very fabric of world politics and international order.

This chapter examines how prominent theories capture the various ways that the UN affects world politics. Different theories of international relations (IR) cast the UN in distinctive roles, which logically lead scholars to identify distinctive kinds of effects. We identify five roles that the UN might have: as an agent of great powers doing their bidding; as a mechanism for interstate cooperation; as a governor of an international society of states; as a constructor of the social world; and as a legitimation forum. Each role has roots in a well-known theory of international politics.

In many, perhaps most, real-world political situations, the UN plays more than one of these roles, but these stylized theoretical arguments about the world body's influence help discipline our thinking. They force us to be explicit about which effects of the world organization we think are important, what is causing them, and why. This is obviously crucial for scholars but it is also important for the United Nations itself. Analysts inside and outside the UN have generated innumerable assessments of peacekeeping, for example, and while these identify successes and moments when peacekeepers made a difference, they rarely identify and untangle the many causal mechanisms by which these outcomes were created. These theoretical arguments also force us to be conscious of inconsistency in our thinking and to explain why contradictions exist. If, for example, one thinks the UN is primarily a tool of its most powerful members, one needs some explanation for the (many) occasions when the United States and others are displeased with the organization and are frustrated by their inability to bend it to their will. By clarifying our assumptions and logical reasoning, we can better detect flaws in our understanding and correct them.